

Atayalic subjects and the nature of nominative

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Abstract This paper investigates the nature of subjecthood properties in the Atayalic group of Austronesian languages of Taiwan. Subjects in these languages are associated with a clause-final, high structural position, topic properties, and nominative case. In particular, nominatives are morphologically reduced as compared to non-nominative case-marked nominals, as is common across so-called Philippine-type Austronesian languages. I therefore propose a model of Austronesian voice alternations where subject promotion involves structure-removal of the subject nominal's K layer. What is traditionally described as nominative-marking, then, reflects the D head of a K-less nominal which occupies a topic position. The analysis is motivated further from the limited availability of nominative-marked non-subjects, attested in Squliq Atayal and Seediq.

Keywords Subjecthood, nominative case, KP, structure removal, Philippine-type voice, Squliq Atayal, Seediq

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1 Introduction

What properties make a subject a subject? In many languages, a subject stands apart from other nominals in a clause by virtue of its distinct morphological coding (e.g. *nominative case*) and designated structural position. Morphology on the verb (e.g. *voice morphology*) may also serve to identify the thematic role of the subject.

All three of these properties hold of the subject in the Atayalic group of Austronesian languages of Taiwan. Consider the Squliq Atayal examples in (1) below, which illustrate an alternation between the so-called Actor Voice (AV) and Patient Voice (PV) with a bivalent verb ‘eat.’¹ In both examples, the subject is the argument in clause-final position and the one that can bear the optional marker *qu*’, which has traditionally been described as a nominative (or absolutive) case maker. The non-subject arguments may be preceded by other case-marking articles, but not *qu*’. The choice of subject also correlates with the choice of voice morphology on the verb, in a manner I discuss in greater detail below.

(1) Voice and subjecthood in Squliq Atayal:

- a. Cyux m-anìq (squ’) sehuy (**qu**’) Yuraw.
AUX AV-eat OBL.D taro NOM Yuraw
‘Yuraw is eating (the) taro.’
- b. Cyux niq-un (na’) Yuraw (**qu**’) sehuy qasa.
AUX eat-PV GEN Yuraw NOM taro DIST
‘Yuraw is eating that taro.’

Atayalic subjects are additionally associated with two other properties, which will be illustrated below: they exhibit familiar topic status and are the only nominal argument which can undergo A’-movement. These are both widely attested properties of subjects across western Austronesian languages (see e.g. Chen & McDonnell 2019). In most cases, all of these various subjecthood properties uniquely and unambiguously identify the subject in Atayalic clauses.

In this paper, I investigate the nature of subjects in Atayalic, with particular emphasis on the nature of nominative case and its derivation. First, I argue that nominatives are structurally smaller than other case-marked nominals. Nominative nominals are DPs, whereas non-nominative nominals are KPs, where K is above D on the functional hierarchy, as has been previously hypothesized on independent grounds by Bittner & Hale (1996), among others. I propose a novel derivational view of this alternation, wherein

¹ In addition to Leipzig glosses, I use the following abbreviations here: PN = proper name; AV = Actor Voice, PV = Patient Voice, LV = Locative Voice, CV = Conveyance Voice, NAV = Non-Actor Voice (see section 2.1). See also sections 2.2 and 3.1 for D, as in the complex articles OBL.D (1a) and GEN.D. I gloss all temporal auxiliaries as AUX, as their exact semantics are not crucial here.

the process of a nominal becoming the subject involves *Removal* (Müller 2017, 2018 et seq) of its K head. Second, I propose that nominal arguments are subject to a licensing condition that is satisfied by being part of a KP extended projection or in the CP domain (Bittner & Hale 1996). Having undergone K-Removal, subjects move to a topic position in the CP domain and are licensed there. Subsequent TP fronting yields the observed clause-final subject position (following Aldridge 1999 et seq, Holmer 2005, a.o.).

Evidence for my proposal comes from the fact that, under limited circumstances, a non-subject can bear nominative marking. Consider the examples in (2) below, which are both Non-Actor Voice clauses but where the agent bears nominative case. This is possible only when the subject itself undergoes A'-movement (2a) or is a second-position clitic pronoun (2b). In just these cases, the clause-final topic position remains empty and so a non-subject nominal may occupy it. These nominals appear as nominatives because they have D heads, being definite, and lack K, licensed instead by being in the clause-final topic position in the CP domain).

(2) **Nominative non-subjects in Squliq Atayal:**

- a. Nanu (qu') cyux =nya niq-un **qu'** Yuraw?
 what NOM AUX =GEN.3sg eat-PV NOM Yuraw
 'What is Yuraw eating?'
- b. Wal =saku =nya kt-an **qu'** Tali.
 AUX =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg see-LV NOM Tali
 'Tali saw me.'

An important detail of these examples in (2) is the presence of a genitive clitic pronoun that doubles the nominative non-subject. I propose that the syntax of clitic-doubling also has the effect of removing an argument's K head. There are therefore two possible paths to constructing K-less (and hence descriptively nominative) nominals: subject promotion and clitic-doubling.

This work — and especially the discussion of the detailed behavior of the nominative non-subject constructions in Squliq Atayal as in (2) — is based on my original fieldwork in 2012 with five speakers of Squliq Atayal who grew up in Fuhshing township, Taoyuan county, Taiwan. All uncredited data come from this fieldwork. In particular, except where noted otherwise, the key behaviors in Squliq that I introduce in section 4 as evidence for my proposal reflect the consistent judgments of my three primary speakers, across multiple sessions, tested with multiple lexicalizations. Unfortunately, due to the time elapsed since this earlier fieldwork, the data available to me now is limited to these earlier field notes. For this reason, I also draw heavily upon data reported in existing literature on Squliq Atayal, as well as

prior descriptions of other Atayalic languages which reinforce my claims.² I will explicitly note relevant points of attested variation and gaps in the available data.

This paper is structured as follows. I first introduce the basic syntactic organization of the clause in Atayalic languages in section 2, highlighting salient differences between individual language varieties and relevant properties of the morphology of the prenominal markers. I then introduce my proposal in section 3, and then discuss the possibility and behavior of nominative-marked non-subjects in section 4, which provides further motivation for the account. I conclude in section 5 with an outlook on the broader application and predictions of my novel proposal here for Philippine-type voice alternations.

2 Basics of Atayalic syntax

The term Atayalic refers to a proposed subgroup of Austronesian languages spoken across the mountainous regions of northern Taiwan, with two member languages, Atayal and Seediq (Li 1981). Traditionally, varieties of Atayal have been broadly classified into two dialect groups, Squliq and C’uli’ (Li 1985, L. Huang 1995b; but see also Goderich 2020). I will therefore generally label examples with this three-way classification (Seediq, Squliq, or C’uli’), making note of more specific dialect and community information in passing where relevant. All uncredited data on Squliq Atayal comes from my earlier fieldwork, as noted above.

Despite many lexical and phonological differences (see especially Goderich 2020) and minor morphosyntactic differences (see e.g. L. Huang 1995b), the members of the Atayalic group are alike in the overall syntactic organization of the clause. I first introduce these core, shared properties, highlighting the properties of subjects, in section 2.1, illustrating many points primarily with examples from Squliq Atayal. I then discuss the inventory of prenominal case-marking articles in greater detail in section 2.2 and present additional properties associated with subjects in section 2.3.

2.1 Voice, case, and word order

The Atayalic languages are typologically classified as so-called “Philippine-type” Austronesian languages. These languages are characterized by their so-called “voice systems” including two or more Non-Actor Voices (Blust 2010: 307), as well as predicate-initial word order, prenominal case-marking articles, and second-position clitic pronouns (Wolff 1996, Himmelmann 2002, 2005, Ross 2002, Blust 2010, 2013, Chen & McDonnell 2019).

Atayalic languages have four voices, illustrated in (3) below with the stem ‘eat’ *qaniq* in Squliq Atayal. Each voice form corresponds to a different choice of event participant being the clause’s subject,

² Sources vary slightly in their orthographic conventions. Therefore, in most cases, I simply reproduce the orthographic forms in the original sources, but align glosses and the form of translations to facilitate comparison.

which is definite, preceded by the nominative marker *qu'*, and generally in clause-final position as in (3) below. With a notionally bivalent verb such as 'eat,' Actor Voice (AV) and Patient Voice (PV) forms take the verb's agent and theme arguments as subjects, respectively (3a,b). Voices can also identify a non-obligatory participant of the event description as the subject, as seen in the Locative Voice (LV) and Circumstantial Voice (CV) examples in (3c,d) below. Some earlier works refer to the fourth form as Instrumental/Benefactive Voice, corresponding to two of the CV form's prominent uses, which are both illustrated in (3d) below.

(3) **Four-way voice alternation:**

[Squliq; A. Liu 2004: 27]

- a. **M**-aniq quliq qu' Tali'.

AV-eat fish NOM Tali

'Tali eats fish.'

Actor Voice (AV)

- b. Niq-**un** na' Tali' qu' qulih qasa.

eat-PV GEN Tali NOM fish DIST

'Tali eats that fish.'

Patient Voice (PV)

- c. Niq-**an** na' Tali' qulih qu' ngasal qasa.

eat-LV GEN Tali fish NOM house DIST

'Tali eats fish in that house.'

Locative Voice (LV)

- d. S-qaniq na' Tali' qulih qu' {qway / Sayun}.

CV-eat GEN Tali fish NOM chopsticks Sayun

'Tali eats fish {with chopsticks / for Sayun}.'

Circumstantial Voice (CV)

Noun phrases can be introduced by prenominal markers, which I refer to pretheoretically as *articles*, or be bare. The choice of marking on non-subject noun phrases is determined by its thematic role. For instance, it is generally the case that non-subject agents are genitive-marked (which is also the form of nominal possessors; see *na' Tali'* in (3b–d)) whereas, in Squliq, non-subject themes are often unmarked (simply *qulih* in (3a,c–d)) but otherwise oblique-marked (see example (1a) above and note 7). For noun phrases that express conceptually optional information about the described situation, the examples in (4–5) below illustrate a couple of alternations between LV and CV subjects and their corresponding non-subject forms.³

³ These patterns of argument coding — including the case-marking on non-subject participants with different thematic roles, as well as which voice form is used when a particular type of participant is the subject — can vary based on the individual verb's lexical conceptual structure and the clause's aspectual specification, and also vary across individual Atayalic varieties. For detailed illustrations and discussions of these patterns, I refer readers to works such as L. Huang 2001 on Matu'uwal (a C'uli' variety referred to in many earlier works by its exonym *Mayrinax*), S. Chen 2007 and Yeh 2013 on Squliq, Tsukida 2009: 355ff and A. Tang 2010 on Truku Seediq, among others.

(4) **Location as oblique adjunct versus LV subject:**

[Squliq; S. Chen 2007: 9, 61]

- | | |
|---|---|
| a. Cyux m-'abi sa kulu qu hozil qasa.
AUX AV-sleep OBL basin NOM dog DIST
'That dog is sleeping in a basin.' | b. 'abi-an na' yaya qu' sakau=su'.
sleep-LV GEN mother NOM bed=GEN.2SG
'Mother is sleeping in your bed.' |
|---|---|

(5) **Instrument as genitive adjunct versus CV subject:**

[Squliq; S. Chen 2007: 27]

- | | |
|--|---|
| a. Bhiy-un =maku na hoku qu Tali.
hit-PV =GEN.1sg GEN stick NOM Tali
'I hit Tali with a stick.' | b. S-bihi =maku Tali qu hoku qani.
CV-hit =GEN.1sg Tali NOM stick PROX
'I hit Tali with this stick.' |
|--|---|

Like other so-called Philippine-type languages, the Atayalic languages also have pronouns that are second-position clitics. Clitic pronouns follow the first preverbal auxiliary or negator, if present, and otherwise follow the verb. See (6a,b) below. Clitic pronouns are only available for subjects and non-subject agents (glossed nominative and genitive, respectively), as is the case across all Philippine-type languages (Erlewine & Levin 2021). The two can cooccur, as in (6c).

(6) **Second-position clitic pronouns:**

[Squliq]

- | | |
|---|--|
| a. Nyux = maku niq-un qu' yutak qani.
AUX =GEN.1sg eat-PV NOM taro PROX
'I am eating this taro.' | b. Niq-un = maku qu' qulih qani.
eat-PV =GEN.1sg NOM fish PROX
'I eat this fish.' |
| c. Nyux = saku = nha kt-an.
AUX =NOM.1sg =GEN.3pl see-LV
'They see me.' | |

An important generalization that holds across the Atayalic languages is that — except in the limited circumstances that I discuss in section 4 below — only the subject can bear nominative case. I illustrate this explicitly for Squliq Atayal in (7) below. Note too that the subject's nominative article can be dropped in Squliq, but nominative case is still not possible on non-subjects even if the immediately pre-subject *qu'* is omitted.

(7) **Non-subject arguments (generally) cannot bear nominative case:**

[Squliq]

- a. Cyux m-aniq {squ' / *qu'} sehuy qasa (qu') Yuraw.

AUX AV-eat OBL.D NOM taro DIST NOM Yuraw

‘Yuraw is eating that taro.’

- b. Cyux niq-un {na' / *qu'} Yuraw (qu') sehuy qasa.

AUX eat-PV GEN NOM Yuraw NOM taro DIST

‘Yuraw is eating that taro.’

Another property of Atayalic subjects is their clause-final position. Specifically, when the subject is expressed as a full noun phrase (rather than a clitic pronoun) following the verb, it generally appears at the end of the clause, followed only by certain final particles (discussed in section 3.5) and embedded clauses (analyzed as right-extraposed; see e.g. C.-K. Shih 2012). Full noun phrase subjects have therefore been described as obligatorily clause-final in Seediq (see e.g. Holmer 1996: 57–58, Aldridge 2004: 33ff) and Squliq Atayal (see e.g. Huang & Hayung 2018: 41ff, A. Liu 2017: 35–37).⁴ The examples in (8) illustrate this requirement for the agent and theme of ‘eat’ in Squliq Atayal, in both AV and PV.

(8) **Clause-final subject requirement:**

[Squliq; A. Liu 2017: 36–37]

- a. M-aniq {qulih} qu' Watan {*qulih}.

AV-eat fish NOM Watan

‘Watan eats fish.’

- b. Niq-an {na' Watan} qu' qulih qasa {*na' Watan}.

eat-LV GEN Watan NOM fish DIST

‘Watan eats that fish.’

2.2 Prenominal articles

Next, I turn to the inventory of prenominal articles and their use, starting first with Atayal and addressing Seediq below. As we have already seen in examples above, prenominal articles in Atayal reflect at least a three-way distinction in morphological case, which I gloss as nominative, genitive, and oblique.⁵ These three categories of articles share the property that they each correspond to an abstract group of noun phrase types, rather than to a specific thematic role. We have already emphasized that nominative is associated with subjects, which can reflect a diverse range of thematic roles (3). In addition, we have

⁴ I am aware of just one exception to the clause-final position of subjects in Atayalic, in Matu'uwal C'uli, which I address in note 23 below.

seen above that genitive articles can introduce both agents (3b–d) and instruments (5a), whereas oblique articles can both introduce themes (7a) and locations (4a). There are also other pronominal articles with much more restricted uses, such as locative *te* and comitative *ki* in Squliq (see especially Huang & Hayung 2011), but here I will concentrate on the form and uses of the nominative, genitive, and oblique.

The genitive and oblique articles for common nouns in Atayal each come in two, related forms. In Matu’uwal C’uli’, these are *na’* / *nku’* and *cu’* / *cku’*, respectively. In Matu’uwal, the choice between the two forms in each pair reflects a difference in definiteness.⁶ Consider the minimal pairs in (9–10) below, with translations reproduced from their sources. I will refer to *nku’* and *cku’*, as well as their cognates, as *complex* articles (vs *simple*) and gloss them as GEN.D and OBL.D, respectively, with D simply being an annotation that foreshadows my analysis below.

(9) **Instruments with genitive *na’* vs *nku’* in Matu’uwal:** [C’uli’; Li 1995: 27]

- a. M-aniq **na’** qaquay cu’ qulih ku’ ’ulaqi’.
 AV-eat GEN chopsticks OBL fish NOM child
 ‘The child ate fish with chopsticks.’
- b. M-aniq **nku’** qaquay cu’ qulih ku’ ’ulaqi’.
 AV-eat GEN.D chopsticks OBL fish NOM child
 ‘The child ate fish with a certain pair of chopsticks.’

(10) **Themes with oblique *cu’* vs *cku’* in Matu’uwal:** [C’uli’; L. Huang 1995a: 94]

- | | |
|--|---|
| <p>a. M-aniq cu’ qulih ku’ ’ulaqi’.
 AV-eat OBL fish NOM child
 ‘The child is eating fish.’</p> | <p>b. M-aniq cku’ qulih ku’ ’ulaqi’.
 AV-eat OBL.D fish NOM child
 ‘The child is eating the fish.’</p> |
|--|---|

To my knowledge, Matu’uwal C’uli’ is unique among contemporary Atayal varieties in expressing a clear semantic contrast with each of these pairs of articles. For other Atayal varieties, the choice of simple vs complex article seems to either be somewhat conventionalized. For example, for the Squliq speakers that I have consulted, non-subject themes can be introduced by OBL.D *sku*⁷ (see (1a, 7a)) if

⁵ I adopt this choice of terminology from more historical and typologically oriented work on Austronesian argument-marking, such as Ross 2006 and Blust 2015. I have seen it used as far back as in F. Blake 1904.

Note that there is also another tradition of describing Philippine-type Austronesian languages as ergative, as reflected in Aldridge’s earlier work on Seediq. From this ergative perspective, what I call “nominative” and “genitive” here would be referred to respectively as “absolutive” and “ergative,” with the latter syncretic with the genitive case of possessors. Note, however, that Aldridge (2004: 31ff) herself refers to the Seediq *ka* marker as a “topic marker,” motivated by facts that I discuss in sections 2.3 and 4 below.

⁶ L. Huang (1995a) describes this as a difference in “referentiality” and Li (1995) refers to “specificity.” See also note 9 below.

definite but never by OBL *sa*, whereas OBL *sa* is preferred over OBL.D *squ*' for locations.

The inventories of nominative, genitive, and oblique articles for common nouns in three Atayal varieties are presented in (11) below. The third row, PIngawan, refers to a variety spoken in Ren'ai township (Nantou county) as described by L. Huang (2006). Some varieties also have separate forms for proper names, but here I will concentrate on the forms of common noun articles.

(11) **Articles for common nouns in three Atayal varieties:**

	NOM	GEN	GEN.D	OBL	OBL.D
Squliq	qu'	na'	nqu'	sa	squ'
Matu'uwal (C'uli')	ku' ⁸	na'	nku'	cu'	cku'
PIngawan (C'uli')	ka'	na'	naka'	ci'	cika'

Notice that there is a formal similarity between the nominative article and the complex non-nominatives (GEN.D and OBL.D) in each variety. More specifically, as authors such as Ferrell (1979: 204), Liao (2004: 303, 317, 320), and Ross (2006: 530) have noted, the complex articles appear to reflect combinations of the simple genitive and oblique articles with the nominative, which is itself associated with definiteness. This is especially clear with the forms in PIngawan, with the Squliq and Matu'uwal forms reflecting subsequent minor contractions. This evidence from the morphological paradigms of articles suggests that genitive and oblique noun phrases are structurally larger than, and can properly contain, what have been called nominative noun phrases.

In contrast to all Atayal varieties, Seediq varieties exhibit a significantly reduced inventory of prenominal articles. In Tgdaya/Paran Seediq, there are only two articles, *ka* and *na* (Holmer 1996: 66–67; see also H. Chang 1997: 12): *ka* may precede subjects, *na* may precede non-subject agents, and non-subject themes are always bare. Truku Seediq only maintains the *ka* nominative article, with genitives being formally unmarked, and has innovated an oblique case suffix (see e.g. Tsukida 2005).

Even with this significantly reduced inventory of articles, evidence from Tgdaya Seediq suggests that the genitive is formally larger than, and can contain, a nominative form. Holmer (1996) observes that a genitive non-subject agent or nominal possessor may appear with a combination of both markers, *na ka*, when the speaker intends to strongly contrast a genitive argument against a contextual alternative.

⁷ As noted above, non-subject themes in Squliq Atayal are frequently bare, without any prenominal article; see (3). Huang & Tanangkingsing (2011: 102) and S. Huang (2017: 12) also report Squliq Atayal examples with *squ*'-marking on non-subject themes, parallel to the behavior of my own Squliq speakers.

More generally, individual Atayal dialects vary substantially in the obligatoriness and frequency of use of articles. For example, L. Huang (1995b: 274) reports that the prenominal articles are obligatory in Matu'uwal C'uli' but frequently dropped in conversation in the Wulai dialect of Squliq Atayal.

⁸ Li (1995) and L. Huang (1995a) describe *ku*' as the specific/referential form of the nominative article, which alternates with a non-specific/non-referential form, *a*'. However, examples of its usage (see e.g. Li 1995: 28, L. Huang 1995a: 90–91) show that *a*' introduces predicate nominals and kind descriptions, which are cross-linguistically associated with reduced noun phrases that do not project D (see e.g. Chierchia 1998). It therefore is not syntactically on par with *ku*', which I will analyze below as a D head.

(12) **Contrastive genitives with *na ka* in Tgdaya:**

[Seediq; Holmer 1996: 73, 128]

- a. runge **na ka** Pawan
monkey GEN NOM Pawan
'Pawan's monkey (not Awi's monkey)'
- b. ... laqi [RC napa **na ka** Temu]
child carry.PV.PFV GEN NOM Temu
'the child that Temu carried (not the one Awi carried)'

This pattern of apparent “case stacking” is reminiscent of case-stacking in Korean and Amis, another Formosan Austronesian language. Multiple case markers can cooccur on a single nominal only if it is focused in Korean (see e.g. Yoon 1996, 2004, Gerdtz & Yoon 1999, Schütze 2001) or a contrastive topic in Amis (T. Chen 2018: ch. 4). Both Levin (2017: 481) and T. Chen (2018: 183) therefore propose constraints that restrict multiple case realization to these limited information-structural contexts. These forms in (12) directly reflect the syntactic structure that I propose below for the extended noun phrase in Atayalic. I then suggest that the two markers are subject to a similar constraint as that which Levin and T. Chen propose for Korean and Amis.

I conclude that, quite generally across Atayalic, there is a structural asymmetry between nominative case and the other core cases (genitive and oblique): Nominative is structurally smaller and can appear as a proper subpart of a genitive or oblique noun phrase, but not vice versa. Faithfully reflecting and explaining this morphological pattern will be an important and unique feature of my syntactic proposal, in section 3 below. I will also show that this relationship between nominative and non-nominative articles is in fact widespread across Philippine-type Austronesian languages, in section 3.3, supporting the broader applicability of my proposal.

2.3 Other subjecthood properties

So far, we have observed that one argument in each clause — the subject — is distinguished from other phrases in its role being reflected in the choice of voice morphology, bearing nominative case, and generally being in clause-final position. In this section, we introduce two other properties of Atayalic subjects: the subject-only restriction on $\bar{A}$ -extraction and the topic properties of subjects.

The $\bar{A}$ -extraction restriction In many Philippine-type Austronesian languages, the subject is the only nominal argument that can undergo $\bar{A}$ -movement (see e.g. Aldridge 2004 and Erlewine, Levin & Van Urk 2017, although see also Erlewine & C. Lim 2023 and Hsieh 2020, 2025 for discussion of some exceptions). In Atayalic languages, gapped relativization, gapped argument topicalization, and ex-situ

argument *wh*/focus constructions are all constrained by this subject-only restriction.

Consider the minimal pairs of Squliq ex-situ *wh*-questions in (13–14) below. For an initial *wh*-phrase to be interpreted as filling a postverbal agent gap, the verb must be in AV in (13). For it to be interpreted as a postverbal theme gap, the verb must be in PV in (14). In other words, only the subject can be gapped in this way. In-situ *wh*-questions are also possible, as I discuss below.

(13) **Ex-situ agent *wh*-question $\Rightarrow$ AV:** [Squliq]

a. Ima (qu') [p-hapuy sehuy qani ____]?

who NOM AV.FUT-COOK taro PROX

'Who will cook these taro?'

b. *Ima (qu') [puy-un ____ (qu') sehuy]?

who NOM cook-PV NOM taro

Intended: 'Who will cook these taro?'

(14) **Ex-situ theme *wh*-question $\Rightarrow$ PV:** [Squliq]

a. Nanu (qu') [wal niq-un (na') Yuraw ____]?

what NOM AUX eat-PV GEN Yuraw

'What did Yuraw eat?'

b. *Nanu (qu') [m-anik ____ (qu') Yuraw]?

what NOM AV-eat NOM Yuraw

Intended: 'What did Yuraw eat?'

I follow Aldridge (2002, 2004: 311ff, 2013) on Seediq in the view that such ex-situ argument *wh*-questions (and structurally parallel focus constructions) are biclausal, with the *wh* or focus phrase being the matrix predicate of a null copular clause, with a headless relative (in brackets in (13–14)) as its subject. (See also Paul 2001a and Potsdam 2009.) This description immediately explains the availability of nominative marking (*qu'*) preceding the gapped clause, in brackets above.

Other $\bar{A}$ -movement constructions also exhibit this subject-only extraction restriction, in Squliq as well as in other Atayalic languages. In the interest of space, I refer the reader to prior works which illustrate the subject-only restriction, including with negative data for the ungrammaticality of non-subject extractions. For Squliq Atayal, A. Liu (2004, 2005, 2017) has previously documented the subject-only restriction for head-external relatives (2004: 44, 2005: 99), ex-situ *wh*-constructions (2017: 256), ex-situ focus constructions (2017: 248, 253), and gapped topics (2017: 202–207). For C'uli' Atayal, the subject-only restriction is illustrated for ex-situ *wh*-constructions (T. Chen 2010: 4, 8), ex-situ focus constructions

(T.-T. Lin 2016: 68–73, 75), and gapped topicalization (T. Chen 2010: 21; Lu 2010: 180; T.-T. Lin 2016: 35–44). For Seediq, H. Chang (1997) (=C) and Tsukida (2009) (=T) independently document the subject-only restriction in Tgdaya and Truku Seediq, respectively, for head-external relatives (C: 142; T: 173–174), ex-situ *wh*-questions (C: 147–148, 169–170; T: 547–551), ex-situ focus constructions (C: 154–155; T: 281), and gapped topicalization (C: 166–167; T: 318).

Topic status The final property of Atayalic subjects that I highlight is their discourse status as familiar topics, which are “used to resume background information or for topic continuity” (Bianchi & Frascarelli 2010: 57). I will again illustrate these effects with data from Squliq Atayal, but highlight prior works that document the same in other Atayalic varieties. Note that I limit my discussion here to the behavior of subjects that are non-pronominal and postverbal, and hence generally in clause-final position.

First, when addressing a question that clearly identifies a particular referent as the topic of discussion, speakers prefer to make that topic participant the subject. See the Squliq minimal pairs in (15–16) below. V. Chen (2017: 139–140) reports the same pattern of judgments in Tgdaya Seediq.

(15) **Asking about the agent** ⇒ **AV:** [Squliq]

Context: What is Yuraw doing?

- | | |
|--|--|
| <p>a. Cyux m-anìq sehuy (qu') Yuraw.
 AUX AV-eat taro NOM Yuraw
 ‘Yuraw is eating taro.’</p> | <p>b. #Cyux niq-un na Yuraw (qu') sehuy.
 AUX eat-PV GEN Yuraw NOM taro
 ‘Yuraw is eating taro.’</p> |
|--|--|

(16) **Asking about the theme** ⇒ **PV:** [Squliq]

Context: What happened to the taro?

- | | |
|---|--|
| <p>a. #Cyux m-anìq sehuy qasa (qu') Y.
 AUX AV-eat taro DIST NOM Y.
 ‘Yuraw is eating that taro.’</p> | <p>b. Cyux niq-un na Y. (qu') sehuy qasa.
 AUX eat-PV GEN Y. NOM taro DIST
 ‘Yuraw is eating that taro.’</p> |
|---|--|

A. Liu (2017) likewise reports on a corpus study that also supports the familiar topic characterization of subjects. Specifically, he shows that subjects in Squliq Atayal are associated with high rates of both givenness and aboutness, operationalized respectively through the statistical measures of referential distance and topic prominence following Givón 1983, 1994.

Second, when asking an in-situ *wh*-question, the *wh*-word cannot be the subject; see (17a). *Wh*-in-situ is possible, but only if it is a non-subject argument, as in (17b). *Wh*-questions are often expressed as

ex-situ, *wh*-initial constructions as in (17c) or in (13–14) above; however, as noted above, the *wh*-phrases in such cases are formally predicates of a matrix clause, rather than a moved subject.

(17) **Subject cannot be an interrogative *wh*:**

[Squliq; B. Lin 2005: 39–40]

- | | |
|---|---|
| <p>a. *Sij-on na Tali qu nanu?
 like-PV GEN Tali NOM what</p> | <p>b. S<m>oja nanu qu Tali?
 <AV>like what NOM Tali</p> |
| <p>c. Nanu qu [sij-on na Tali ____]?
 what NOM like-PV GEN Tali
 ‘What does Tali like?’</p> | |

This same restriction against in-situ interrogative *wh*-phrases in subject position has also been documented for Plngawan C’uli’ (C. Shih 2008: 89–90), Tgdaya Seediq (H. Chang 1997: 146–147, Aldridge 2004: 282), and Truku Seediq (Tsukida 2009: 317–318). See also L. Huang 1995b, 1996 and Huang et al. 1999 for many examples of ex-situ and in-situ *wh*-questions in Matu’uwal (C’uli’ Atayal) which accord with this generalization, but without negative data of ungrammatical subject in-situ *wh*-questions.

It is worth noting that familiar topics can appear cross-linguistically in right-peripheral positions, unlike other types of topics (see especially Frascarelli & Hinterhölzl 2007). The association of Atayalic subjects with both “familiar topic” status and clause-final position is therefore unsurprising. Atayalic languages also have left-peripheral topics that have contrastive or scene-setting functions (A. Liu 2017: ch. 7). In addition, as familiar topics refer to a pre-established or clearly identifiable referent in the discourse context, they must be definite,⁹ which will play an important role below.

I conclude by noting that subjects in many Philippine-type Austronesian languages have been described as being associated with topicality. Among formal analyses that discuss and make use of this description, Richards 2000 on Tagalog, Pearson 2001, 2005 on Malagasy, and Aldridge 2004 on Seediq are important, earlier references. More recently, and following Aldridge’s description of Seediq *ka* as a “topic marker,” V. Chen (2017, 2025) takes such facts to motivate reanalyzing “nominative” morphology as in fact a form of topic marking that overrides underlying case morphology (V. Chen 2017: 148, 2025: 1884). My own proposal will pursue a different approach to explaining the morphology of subjects in Atayalic languages and their association with topichood.

⁹ Further work is necessary to pinpoint the exact semantic status associated with subjects and other nominatives, as well as the complex genitive or oblique series (see note 6). See for example Paul 2009 for discussion of relevant diagnostics as applied to the Malagasy article *ny*, which she argues to be associated with a notion of familiarity, but not definiteness. Here and below, I refer to “definiteness” as shorthand for the right notion.

3 Proposal

I now turn to my proposal for Atayalic syntax, with a particular emphasis on the various subjecthood properties observed above. Many aspects of my proposal will adopt assumptions from previous work on Atayalic and other Philippine-type languages, including a predicate-fronting derivation for verb-initial, subject-final word order (following Aldridge 1999 et seq on Seediq and Atayal and Holmer 2005 on Seediq) and the idea that A- and $\bar{A}$ -features play a joint role in the determination of voice morphology (as in Chung 1982, 1994, 1998, Rackowski 2002, Rackowski & Richards 2005; V. Chen 2017, 2025, to appear), as well as assumptions regarding the structure of the verbal phase (as in Aldridge 2004, Erlewine & C. Lim 2023) and the derivation of clitic pronouns (Erlewine & Levin 2021).

The key, distinguishing innovations of my proposal here are my perspectives on the nature of nominative marking and the syntax of subject promotion. As illustrated above, subjects are associated with topicality and definiteness, and are structurally reduced as compared to other, non-nominative case-marked arguments. I propose to take these morphological cues seriously, with nominatives reflecting a smaller structure (DPs) than other case-marked nominals (KPs), which is the result of *removal* of its K head that takes place during subject promotion. With the exception of relative operators and clitic pronouns, subjects move to a topic position in the CP domain, which due to its semantics is associated with definiteness. K-Removal, together with the definiteness associated with this topic status, explains the association of subjects with nominative form, analyzed as K-less DPs. Evidence for this perspective will come from the limited availability of nominative-marked non-subjects, which I introduce in section 4.

3.1 Nominal types and their distribution

I begin by discussing the structure of non-pronominal noun phrases in Atayalic. (I discuss pronouns in section 3.6.) I propose that extended noun phrases in Atayalic may maximally project the functional projections $KP > DP > NP$. K is the locus of the non-nominative case markers (genitive and oblique) while D is a definite determiner and the locus of what has traditionally been called nominative case marking. I take nominatives to be those nominals that lack a KP layer, following Bittner & Hale 1996 as well Kornfilt & Preminger 2015, McFadden 2018, Smith et al. 2019, Zompì 2019, and others.¹⁰

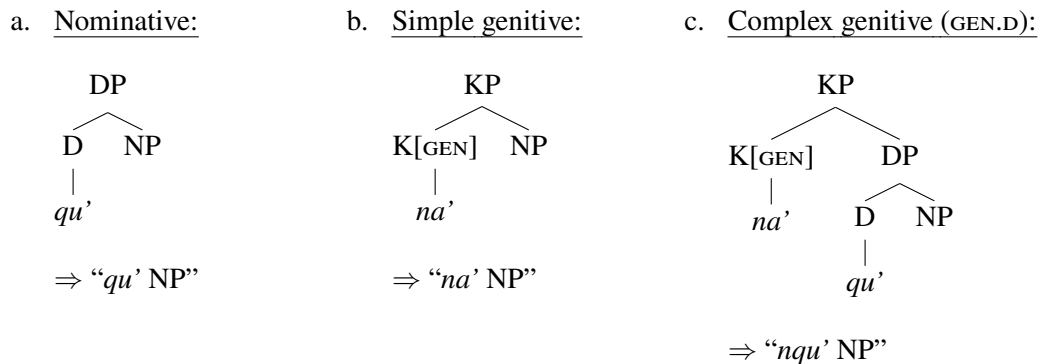
(18) The functional sequence of the Atayalic extended NP:

(K)	>	(D)	>	N
OBL/GEN		NOM		

¹⁰ The idea that nominative case is associated with a reduced structure as compared to other morphological cases has also been claimed to be typologically true; see especially B. Blake 2001, Caha 2009, 2024, and citations there.

The presence or absence of K and D heads in (18) logically allows for four different types of nominals, which correspond to four types of nominals observed in Atayalic languages. These are nominatives (with D but no K), simple non-nominatives (with K but no D), complex non-nominatives (with both K and D), as well as bare NPs (with no K or D). I illustrate the first three types with Squaliq Atayal morphological forms in (19).

(19) **Example surface structures for Squaliq Atayal nominals:**



The fourth predicted type — bare NPs — will be the structure of article-less nominatives, as I treat K-less nominals as nominative. I discuss article-less nominals further at the end of this section.

I identify D as a definite determiner, motivated by the definiteness of subjects (nominatives) and of complex genitives and obliques (see (9–10) above). (See also note 9.) Nominals that do not include the definite determiner simply do not project DP (following e.g. Lyons 1999, Vangsnes 2001, Ghomeshi & Massam 2009). Furthermore, I propose that, in some but not all Atayalic varieties, the projection of D is optional for nominals that clearly denote a specific individual through its nominal description alone, such as with proper names or with demonstratives. This accounts for the optionality of the nominative article on subjects in Squaliq Atayal as seen in (1/7) and (15–16) above. In contrast, varieties such as Matu’uwal C’uli’ require D to be projected on all definite nominals, which explains the obligatoriness of nominative articles (see also note 7) as well as the clear difference in definiteness between simple and complex non-nominatives in that variety (see (9–10)).

Nominal arguments are subject to a formal requirement to be “licensed” (see e.g. Chomsky 1981, 1986, Chomsky & Lasnik 1993), which is often implemented by claiming that noun phrases are born with an uninterpretable case feature, [ucase: __], which must be checked and valued via Agree with an appropriate licensor. Here I adopt a slightly more nuanced perspective (articulated in different forms in Bittner & Hale 1996 and Levin 2015) that the [ucase] feature is a requirement of K heads, and that nominals often but not always require the projection of K. In particular, Bittner & Hale (1996) proposes that nominals are subject to a “K Filter,” which ensures their “being appropriately related to K or C, and rules out double Case assignment” (p. 7). I propose and adopt the contemporary formulation for the K

Filter in (20):¹¹

(20) **K Filter:**

(based on Bittner & Hale 1996: 8)

A nominal argument must be a KP or be selected by a C head, but not both.

The statement of the K Filter (see also note 11) reflects the widespread intuition of K and C being parallels of one another across the nominal and clausal domains, as first suggested by Lamontagne & Travis (1987). Both contribute the function that Wiltschko (2011, 2014) refers to as “anchoring” or “linking.” Note that I will adopt a split CP architecture (Rizzi 1997) for Atayalic and accordingly there will be two heads — C and Topic — that count as C heads for the purposes of the K Filter.

I propose that all nominal arguments are generated in the thematic domain as KPs. Core argument KPs are generated without any case values (bearing [ucase:___]) but then valued within the thematic domain, with transitive agents and themes receiving genitive and oblique, respectively.¹² I annotate these case values [VGEN] and [VOBL], respectively, with “v” indicating their having undergone a process of valuation. (I abbreviate “case:” where its omission will not cause confusion.) Following Bittner & Hale (1996: 6–7), nominals can also be generated with inherent case values: in particular, locations are generated with an inherently oblique-valued K head (see (4a)) and beneficiaries and instruments are generated with an inherently genitive-valued K head (see (5a, 9)). I will notate these case values [iOBL] and [iGEN], respectively, with “i” indicating their inherent status. I summarize these four different case values in (21):

(21) **Four case values:**¹³

- a. [VGEN] valued, e.g. on transitive agents
- b. [VOBL] valued, e.g. on transitive themes
- c. [iOBL] inherent on locations
- d. [iGEN] inherent on beneficiaries and instruments

¹¹ Bittner & Hale’s (1996) formulation of the K Filter is: “An argument chain headed by a K-less nominal (DP or NP) contains a position that is c-commanded and governed by K or C, and does not contain any Case-bound position” (p. 8). This relies on the notion of government as well as their theory of “Case-binding,” and for these reasons, I offer the reformulation in (11).

As one piece of motivation for the idea that C serves a licensing function, Bittner & Hale (1996) suggests that “the K Filter accounts both for the propensity of nominative arguments to raise to [Spec, IP], a position c-commanded and governed by C, and for the possibility of alternative licensing mechanisms” (p. 8). Notice that my simplified statement of the K Filter in (20) does not transparently treat Spec,IP/TP as a position licensed by C, but may do so if we consider the feature inheritance relationship between C and T (see e.g. Chomsky 2008).

¹² The exact mechanism that determines these case values is orthogonal to the key points of my proposal here. As one possibility, V. Chen (2017, 2025) argues for Seediq that the oblique case on themes should be described as structural accusative (extending also to ECM subjects, derived objects of raising-to-object-like predicates, and causees of productive causatives) and that the genitive case on agents is structural nominative (extending to unaccusative themes). My overall proposal is compatible with this view. This case valuation on unvalued nominals must take place early in the derivation, in order to feed case-discriminated probing or case-agreement, as I discuss in section 3.4.

Finally, I discuss the structure of nominals without overt articles. As noted above, Atayalic varieties differ in the inventory of overt case-marking articles and the obligatoriness of their use. Certain cases systematically lack articles in Seediq varieties: for example, genitives are always bare in Truku, as are obliques in Tgdaya. I propose that K with particular case values always realize null allomorphs in such varieties. In Squiliq Atayal, non-subject themes are bare unless introduced by the complex oblique *squ*’ (see note 7): This suggests that K[VOBL] must be null unless in the presence of a local D. Atayal dialects also vary in the obligatoriness of articles. Based on prior descriptions, we may say that K and D heads are always overt in the well-studied Matu’uwal variety of C’uli’ Atayal. In Atayal dialects that allow for “article-drop,” I suggest that K can be realized with a null allomorph, but only if it takes a NP sister (as in (19b)). In contrast, I take the presence or absence of an overt nominative article to correlate directly with the presence or absence of a D head.

3.2 Subject promotion with K-Removal

Next, I introduce my proposal for the syntax of subject promotion. I adopt the current consensus position for the formal syntactic analysis of Philippine-type voice systems: that voice alternations and verbal voice morphology are associated with the head of the clause-medial, verbal phase, and in particular, that the subject is always the highest nominal in the verbal phase (see e.g. Aldridge 2004, Rackowski & Richards 2005, Erlewine, Levin & Van Urk 2020, Erlewine & Levin 2021, Erlewine & C. Lim 2023, Hsieh 2025). My proposal however differs from existing phase-based proposals for Philippine-type voice systems in the derivational procedure involved in voice alternations. Instead of simply moving the subject to the phase edge, I propose that the phase head *v* removes the K layer of the subject, utilizing recent work on the theory of structure removal operations (especially Müller 2017, 2018 et seq). Removal of the subject’s K head explains the neutralization of case distinctions on the subject.

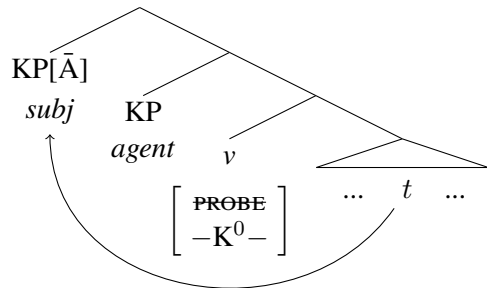
I follow V. Chen (2017, 2025) and Hsieh (2020, 2025) in the view that the subject is distinguished from other nominals by bearing an $\bar{A}$ -feature: more specifically, a topic [TOP] or relative operator [REL] feature. The placement of this $\bar{A}$ -feature will determine the choice of nominal that becomes the subject. For the purposes of this section, I will annotate the head *v* with [PROBE], which stands in for the formal features that attract an $\bar{A}$ -nominal to become the subject, as well as the corresponding voice morphology. I discuss the relationship between subject choice and voice morphology in section 3.4 below.

¹³ The four case values that I propose in (21a–d) correspond to what V. Chen (2017, 2025) refers to as case markers CM₁ and CM₂ and prepositions P₁ and P₂, respectively. I prefer my own description here for Atayalic for two reasons. First, describing these articles as CM₁/CM₂/P₁/P₂ obscures the fact that what V. Chen would call CM₁ and P₂ (in 21a,d) both realize the same genitive article forms and CM₂ and P₁ (in 21b,c) both realize the same oblique article forms. Second, I am aware of no evidence in Atayalic for distinguishing between the first two as “case markers” and the latter two as “prepositions,” except that the former’s case features are determined during the derivation whereas the latter have inherent values. However, I will acknowledge that this is primarily a matter of notational choice and that the core of my proposal below can be maintained even if we adopt V. Chen’s style of description for the non-nominative case values and articles.

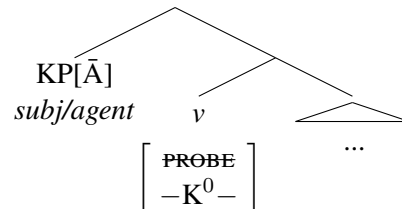
Consider the structure of the νP phase edge in (22) below. In Non-Actor Voices, the subject moves to become an outer specifier of νP , above the external argument, as in (22a). If the external argument itself bears the $\bar{A}$ -feature, it will trivially satisfy the subject probing requirements of ν , as in (22b).

(22) νP phase after subject movement (if necessary) but prior to K-Removal:

a. Non-Actor Voice (NAV):



b. Actor Voice (AV):

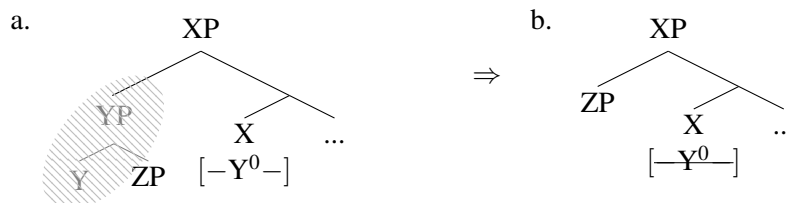


Note that the outer specifier of νP is an intermediate movement position, and not its final landing site. I discuss the movements that yield subject-final word order in section 3.5 below.

I propose that ν also bears a feature triggering removal of the subject's K head, $[-K^0-]$, which applies to the nominal that satisfies [PROBE]. Here I follow the theory and mechanisms of structure removal as proposed by Müller (2017, 2018 et seq). The particular variety of structure removal configuration that will play a role here is where the root node XP has a specifier YP, and the head X bears the head-removal feature $[-Y^0-]$. As illustrated in (23), the associated operation *Remove* will remove the head Y and reattach the dependent(s) of YP — here, just the complement ZP — to be specifier(s) of XP. See also Zyman 2018, Hewett to appear, and the various works in Murphy 2019, for further motivation and discussion of Remove.

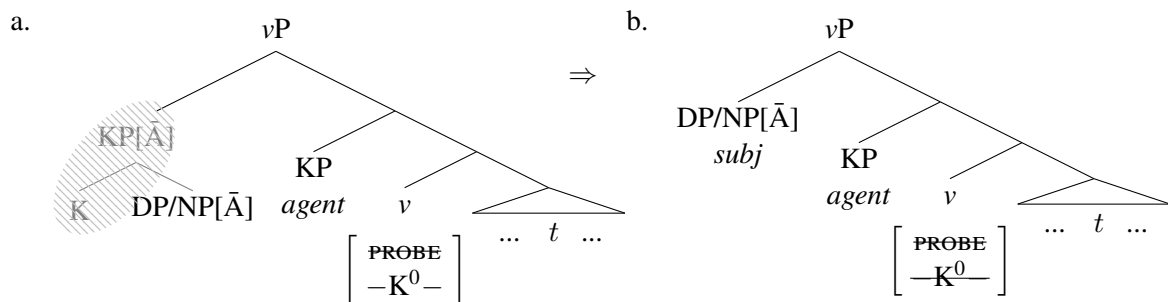
(23) **Remove targeting the specifier's head:**

(simplified from Müller 2017: 7)



Concretely, (24) below illustrates the result of K-Removal as applying in a Non-Actor Voice clause based on (22a) above. The subject will be a DP or NP, depending on whether the subject nominal included a D layer or not.

(24) **K-Removal targeting the subject, based on (22a):**



The only precursor to this idea of subjects undergoing K-Removal that I am aware of is Kroeger 1990, a short unpublished manuscript on the syntax of Kimaragang Dusun, a Philippine-type language of northeast Borneo. There, he suggests that the case marker (represented as a K head, citing Lamontagne & Travis 1987) separates from the subject and incorporates into Infl, resulting in voice morphology on the verb and a DP subject.¹⁴ However, Kroeger does not address the nature of the prenominal article on subjects following K-incorporation. In contrast, on my account here, nominative marking is the determiner (D) of [K [D NP]] nominals that have undergone K-Removal.

Finally, recall that *v* is a phase head. I assume the Phase Impenetrability Condition (Chomsky 2000: 108, 2001: 13), which claims that only the “edge” of the phase (its head and specifiers) are accessible for syntactic operations outside of the phase. Notably, the derivations above predict that only one nominal (the subject) is available for higher operations in AV clauses (see (22b)), whereas two nominals (both the subject and the non-subject agent) will be accessible in NAV clauses (see (22a/24)). Erlewine & Levin (2021) argue that the attested inventories of second-position clitic pronouns in Philippine-type Austronesian languages motivates precisely this type of difference between the syntax of AV and NAV clauses. I return to this feature of my account, and the derivation of pronominal clitics, in section 3.6 below.

3.3 An aside on the nature of nominative beyond Atayalic

In this section, I will briefly highlight the relevance of my proposal here for other Philippine-type Austronesian languages; I then continue my discussion of Atayalic in section 3.4 below. The asymmetry between nominative and non-nominative case-marking articles in Atayalic, presented in section 2.2 above and motivating the idea that subjects undergo K-Removal, in fact reflects a widespread and recurring

¹⁴ Guilfoyle, Hung & Travis 1992 makes a brief, similar suggestion in relation to the derivation of Malagasy CV (footnote 7 on page 382, and again on page 412): The subject is base-generated as a prepositional argument whose preposition undergoes incorporation into the verbal complex (citing the Baker 1988 analysis of applicatives), and the resulting preposition-less nominal becomes the subject. Kroeger (1990) describes his own case incorporation view as a refinement and extension to Guilfoyle, Hung & Travis’s (1992) P-incorporation (citing a prepublication manuscript), criticizing the P-incorporation approach as only applying to a subset of voices (i.e., LV and CV here) and not to agent and theme subjects in AV or PV. The proposed derivation here is also reminiscent of the “peeling” effects of movement on morphological case, as proposed in Caha 2009.

pattern across such languages. This has long been recognized within the comparative and historical Austronesian literature, but its importance for syntactic theory has not been appreciated before.

Consider the article inventories from a few other Philippine-type languages in (25). These inventories reflect distinctions in referentiality (25a,c–f),¹⁵ proximity (25b), and temporal reference (25f).¹⁶ As Reid (2006) notes, what are traditionally described as “nominative” articles in fact only “function to identify, or specify, or agree with, various features of their nominal complements... especially of the deictic kind” (p. 10).

(25) **Common noun articles from some other Philippine-type languages:**

a. <u>Bontok</u> : ¹⁷ (Reid 2006: 13,16)					d. <u>Paiwan</u> : (J. Tang 2006: 177–179, A. Chang 2006: 115–116)				
	NOM	GEN	OBL			NOM	GEN	OBL	
definite	nan	=n nan	=s nan		definite	a	nua/na	tua/ta	
recognitional	san	=n san	=s san		indefinite		nu	tu	
b. <u>Itbayat</u> : (Yamada 2014: 33)					e. <u>Puyuma</u> : ¹⁸ (Teng 2009: 840)				
	NOM	GEN	OBL	LOC		NOM	GEN	LOC	
proximate	i	ni	si	di	definite	na	nina	kana	
distal	o	no	so	do	indefinite	a	za	za	
c. <u>Kimaragang</u> : (Kroeger 2005: 406)					f. <u>Waray</u> : (Zorc 1977: 83–85)				
	NOM	GEN	LOC				NOM	GEN	
definite	i(t)	di(t)	sid		definite / non-past		'it	hit	
indefinite	o(t)	do(t)	sid		anaphoric / past		'in	hin	
unique ref.	a(t)	da(t)	ad						

Most of the article inventories in (25) suggest an analysis whereby all nominals include some D head, with non-nominatives further projecting KP. This contrasts from the Atayalic pattern and my proposal

¹⁵ I reproduce Reid’s term “recognitional” in (25a) and Kroeger’s term “unique ref.” in (25c). I refer the reader to these sources and other works by those authors for more precise descriptions of these referential categories.

¹⁶ A number of Philippine-type languages use a distinct case for locative phrases and ditransitive goals; I gloss these as locative (LOC), as in (25b,c,e). Some also do not distinguish the genitive and oblique, using the same article series for non-subject agents and themes, as in (25c,e,f). Many other Philippine-type languages do not make referential or other distinctions as the inventories in (25) do, but nonetheless show the nominative being a proper subpart of the others, including Western Subanon NOM *og* / GEN *nog* / LOC *sog* (O’Brien 2016, O’Grady & Bulalang 2019) and Kapampangan NOM *ing* / GEN *ning* / LOC *king* (Baetscher 2018: 2). Bittner & Hale (1996) very briefly discuss these Kapampangan facts, concluding as I do that “The subject is nominative, a bare DP, assuming the particle *ing* to be a pure determiner” (p. 59).

¹⁷ Guinaang variety. Here I give the forms that appear after preceding vowel-final words, as the genitives become syncretic with the nominative after consonant-final words. The genitive and oblique articles here are ditropic clitics, meaning that they syntactically form a constituent with the noun phrase to the right but phonologically lean to the left, which are common in Philippine languages; see e.g. Himmelmann 2014.

¹⁸ Katipul and Ulivelivek dialect forms

in section 3.1 above, which also allows for the possibility of KPs without an internal D layer. However, it is worth lingering on the Paiwan pattern in (25d) above. First, we note that *na* and *ta* are reduced forms used by younger speakers, corresponding respectively to *nua* and *tua* (A. Chang 2006: 113, 115). Concentrating on the conservative forms then, the genitive and oblique articles *nua* and *tua* transparently reflect definite [K [D NP]] structures which include a definite D head (*a*), which each correspond to indefinite [K NP] structures realizing only *nu* and *tu*.

Not all Philippine-type languages exhibit article inventories that so clearly motivate the analysis of nominative articles as being structurally smaller than the non-nominatives or a subpart thereof. However, there can be other evidence that nominatives are formally less marked than other cases. For example, consider the form of Tagalog demonstratives in different case-marked environments:

(26) **The structure of Tagalog case-marked demonstratives, from Kaufman 2010: 217:**

- | | | |
|---|---|--|
| a. nang + ito → nito
GEN this this.GEN | b. sa + ito → díto
OBL this this.OBL | c. ang + ito → ito
NOM this this.NOM |
|---|---|--|

Kaufman (2010) writes, “Merger of demonstratives with the nominative case marker, shown in [(26c)], results in deletion/zero exponence of the case marker” (p. 217). However, I would suggest that a much simpler analysis, for both the learner and linguist, is that nominative *ito* in (26c) is in fact formally unmarked for case. The demonstrative occupies the same position as the nominative article *ang*, which in turn is also a subpart of the genitive article *n-ang* (conventionally written <ng>) and explains the genitive demonstrative *n-ito*. See also Erlewine & J. Lim 2023 for discussion of the formal caselessness of demonstratives in another Philippine language, Pangasinan.

I conclude that the generalization that nominative articles are structurally smaller than non-nominatives, and can be contained within them, extends across a wide range of Philippine-type Austronesian languages. This generalization is so widespread that Aldridge (2021) has even suggested that nominatives were formally unmarked in Proto-Austronesian: “Rather, subjects surfaced as bare DPs selected by a determiner” (p. 4). Thus, the key innovations of my proposal here — for the structure of noun phrases (§3.1), of subjects as undergoing K-Removal (§3.2), and the analytic possibilities for voice morphology in the following section (§3.4) — may productively extend to this broader range of languages. However, as the detailed syntax of these languages vary in a number of ways,¹⁹ for the remainder of the paper, I will concentrate on accounting for the detailed behaviors of subjects in Atayalic as introduced in section 2 above.

¹⁹ Key differences include the inventories and ranges of use of different morphological cases (see note 16), how exactly different voices map to different choices of subject, and the word order of subjects, which in many Philippine-type languages are *not* rigidly sentence-final as they are in Atayalic.

3.4 Subject selection and voice morphology

A hallmark of Philippine-type Austronesian languages is the “voice” morphology on verbs, which correlates with the choice of argument that becomes the subject of the clause. In this section, I discuss the relationship between voice morphology and subject selection.

As presented in section 3.2, I adopt the current consensus position that the subject is the highest nominal in the verbal phase edge. Voice morphology must therefore be the trigger of, or response to, the attraction of the subject to the phase edge. Here for concreteness I will first present one possible implementation that treats different voices as differently specified triggers of subject movement, synthesizing ideas from V. Chen (2017 et seq), Deal (2017), and Branan & Erlewine (2024). I will then briefly sketch a possible alternative below, wherein voice morphology is a response to attraction of a particular kind of subject.

V. Chen (2017 et seq) argues for the generalization that AV, PV, and LV correspond respectively to the subject being the closest genitive, the closest oblique, and the closest locative (PP for V. Chen), with CV being a last-resort default form. I refer interested readers to V. Chen’s work for her extensive motivation for this view.²⁰ I propose to implement each voice as a different flavor of v head, with probes that combine the independently-motivated ideas of case-discriminating probing from Deal 2017 and of $\bar{A}$ -probing that must target the closest nominal from Branan & Erlewine 2024 (see also Branan to appear). Consider the probe specifications in (27) below.

(27) Different $\bar{A}$ -probes for the closest nominal with case-discrimination:

- | | |
|--|--|
| a. v_{AV} : [PROBE: K[VGEN]+ $\bar{A}$] | c. v_{LV} : [PROBE: K[iOBL]+ $\bar{A}$] |
| b. v_{PV} : [PROBE: K[VOBL]+ $\bar{A}$] | d. v_{CV} : [PROBE: $\bar{A}$] |

The probes in (27a,b,c) will seek an $\bar{A}$ -target that is the closest KP with a particular case value. Once this goal is found, it will be moved to become a specifier of vP if it is not already one, and then K-Removal triggered by $[-K^0-]$ will apply to the goal (see (24)). If the closest nominal of the specified kind does not bear an $\bar{A}$ -feature, probing halts and the derivation crashes; hence, derivations with non-matching choices of v will be filtered out. The CV head in (27d) is used only when the heads (27a,b,c) do not apply, probing for an $\bar{A}$ -target in a manner that allows it to skip intervening non- $\bar{A}$ nominals, although it must still match a KP as it will be subject to K-Removal.

²⁰ V. Chen’s own formal proposal for voice (V. Chen 2021, to appear) describes voice morphology as the reflex of so-called “parallel chains.” However, her account leaves many details open, most importantly the precise mechanism for how and where voice morphemes are realized, and so I do not adopt it here. I refer readers to Aldridge 2026: 351–357 for a recent summary of the “parallel chains” account and the various challenges it faces. My analysis here derives the same core generalization of V. Chen’s regarding the distribution of voices, but without the problematic qualities of her own account.

This proposal in (27) is conceptually similar to existing, so-called “case-agreement” approaches to Philippine-type voice, where different voices reflect the case value of the nominal that is selected for subject promotion. Versions of this approach are advanced in Chung 1982, 1994, 1998, Kroeger 1990, Pearson 2001, 2005, Rackowski 2002, and Rackowski & Richards 2005.²¹ Concretely, suppose that ν uniformly bears a simple $\bar{A}$ -probe which can skip intervening non- $\bar{A}$ nominals, akin to (27d), and then the case value of the goal is copied back onto ν , leading to different morphological realizations of ν as per (28) below. As above, the goal is also moved if necessary and undergoes obligatory K-Removal, effectively requiring the probe to target a KP.

(28) **Different realizations for ν based on the subject’s case value:**

- | | |
|---|---|
| a. $\nu[\text{VGEN}] \leftrightarrow \text{AV}$ | c. $\nu[\text{iOBL}] \leftrightarrow \text{LV}$ |
| b. $\nu[\text{VOBL}] \leftrightarrow \text{PV}$ | d. $\nu[\text{iGEN}] \leftrightarrow \text{CV}$ |

These two approaches sketched here — with different case-discriminating probes as in (27) versus different morphological realizations based on the goal’s case as in (28) — come apart in the distribution of CV. Recall that CV appears when the subject is an instrument or beneficiary, which when not the subject bear inherent genitive case (see (5)); this motivates the description in (28d). However, CV is also used when the subject is the theme of a ditransitive verb, which bears oblique case when not the subject. I illustrate this fact in (29).²²

(29) **Ditransitive theme as oblique non-subject or CV subject:** [C’uli’; L. Huang 1995a: 59]

- a. M-in-[b]aiq =ci’ **cu’** pila’ cku’ ’ulaqi’.
 AV-PFV-give =1SG.NOM OBL money OBL.D child
 ‘I gave money to the child.’
- b. Si-baiq =mu cku’ ’ulaqi’ **ku’** pila’.
 CV-give =1SG.GEN OBL.D child NOM money
 ‘I gave the money to the child.’

Such examples show that CV subjects do not always correspond to the selection of an inherent genitive subject, thereby challenging the simple case-agreement account sketched in (28), at least without further

²¹ The analytic intuition behind case-agreement significantly predates these generative accounts. See especially F. Blake 1906, titled “The expression of case on the verb in Tagalog,” as well as McKaughan 1957, 1958, 1970. F. Blake (1906) even describes Tagalog CV as the last-resort default (cf. discussion around (27)), which “bears the burden of the remaining case relations” (p. 189), although without explicit argumentation. See Blust 2002 and Kroeger 2010 for more discussion of the legacy of Blake and McKaughan’s ideas.

²² I choose to present data from Matu’uwal C’uli’ here because each nominal is consistently preceded by an article in Matu’uwal. See note 7. I thank an anonymous reviewer for highlighting the importance of ditransitives for the discussion here.

modification. This is one reason why V. Chen (2017) argues that CV should be described as a last-resort, elsewhere form, as in (27). It is worth noting, however, that the data in (29) is not entirely insurmountable for the case-agreement approach. For example, Rackowski (2002) advances a case-agreement account for Tagalog along the lines of (28) (which in fact directly parallels the table in Rackowski 2002: 111) and suggests that examples parallel to (29a,b) reflect different base structures for the ditransitive. See Rackowski 2002 pp. 126–128 for discussion.

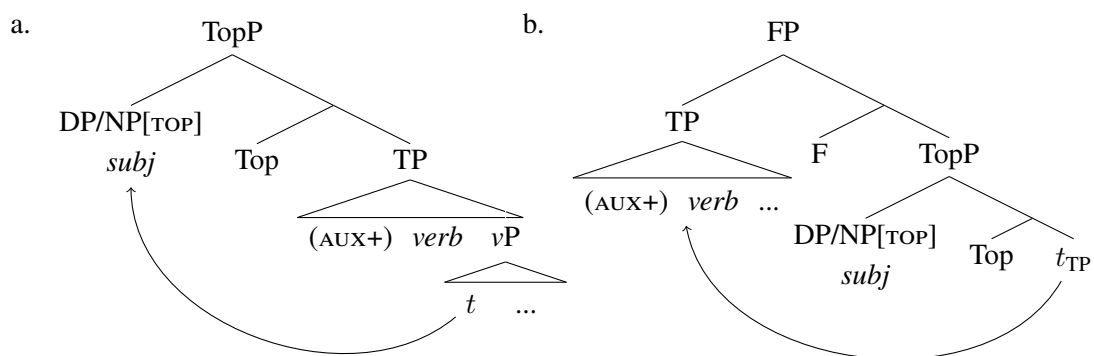
Here, I will leave open the question of the best account of Philippine-type voice morphology. What is necessary for compatibility with my proposal here — and in turn with the morphological evidence from prenominal articles in Atayalic and beyond — is that the case values are established for all nominals within the lower, thematic domain of the clause, before subject promotion takes place to attract the subject and remove its K-layer.

3.5 Subjects in topic position with predicate-fronting

Recall that non-pronominal subjects in Atayalic languages are strongly associated with sentence-final position (§2.1) and familiar topic interpretation (§2.3). I propose that this subject-final word order reflects the movement of the subject to a high position, followed by the remainder of the sentence (the predicate) moving to an even higher position, as has been previously proposed for Seediq by Aldridge (2002, 2004, 2013, 2019) and Holmer (2005) and for Matu’uwal C’uli’ by T. Chen (2010).

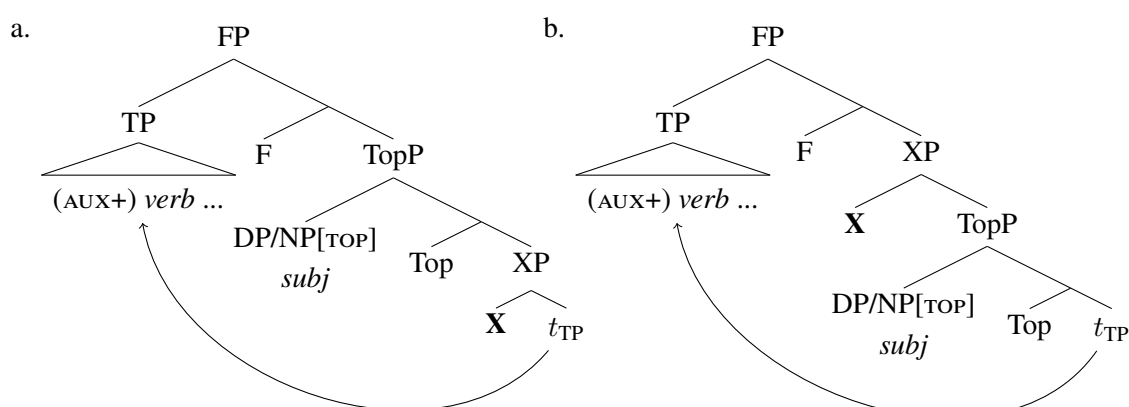
Concretely, I propose that there is a Topic head (or simply “Top”) in the clause periphery which probes for and attracts a [TOP] goal. Recall that a subject which is not a relative operator will bear [TOP], and is the highest phrase at the vP phase edge (see (22)). Therefore, excepting situations where the subject is pronominal (addressed in sections 3.6 and 4 below), Top will necessarily attract the subject for movement, which will lead to its clause-final position. Top will take a projection I call TP as its complement and TopP in turn will be sister to a higher head F, which attracts the remnant TP. I illustrate these two movement steps in (30).

(30) **Subject movement to Spec,TopP followed by remnant TP fronting:**



As the subject has undergone K-Removal, it will be a DP or NP; however, as it has been selected for by a C head, Top, it will be licensed in Spec,TopP per the K Filter (20). In addition, what occupies this Spec,TopP position must be a familiar topic and hence definite. The subject will therefore generally be a K-less DP, leading to its realization with a nominative article (see (19a)) and in clause-final position. Recall, however, that individual Atayalic varieties vary in the obligatoriness of the projection of D for definite nominals; this accounts for the possibility of nominative article drop in some varieties, including Squliq Atayal.

Based on this proposal, the sentence-final subject is unique among postverbal phrases in being in the clause periphery. All other arguments will stay within *vP*, which is fronted as part of *TP* and hence precedes the subject.²³ Evidence for this predicate-fronting derivation comes from the distribution of clause-peripheral particles. Holmer (2005) discusses clause-final particles in Seediq, which follow the subject, and analyze them as heads in the functional sequence above the target of predicate-fronting (*TP*). Predicate-fronting to clause-initial position strands these particles in clause-final position. I give a simplified possible account for such particles (here represented by *X*) in (31a).



- (i) [TP T<um>aloq [_{vP} {^{?i} Yumin} cu qulih]] [_{TopP} {i Yumin} t_{TP}].
 <AV>cook OBL fish NOM.PN Yumin

[C'uli'; based on T. Chen 2010: 28]

Holmer suggests that this type of analysis can also be adapted for related predicate-initial and subject-final languages with grammatical particles that appear specifically in pre-subject position as well, such as the interrogative particle *ve* in Malagasy (see also Paul 2001b). See (31b).²⁴

The distribution of interrogative particles in Squliq reflects the availability of both structures in (31). Although interrogative particles in Atayal are generally described as appearing in clause-final position, for the Squliq Atayal speakers that I had the fortune of working with (from Fuhshing township, Taoyuan county), the interrogative particle *ga'* may precede or follow the subject, but cannot precede non-subject arguments; see (32).²⁵

(32) **Interrogative *ga'* must be in pre-subject or sentence-final position:** [Squliq]

Cyux m-aniq {**ga'*} yutak {*ga'*} qu' Yuraw {*ga'*}?
 AUX AV-eat orange Q NOM Yuraw Q
 'Is Yuraw eating oranges?'

I suggest that this optionality in placement reflects that there are two options for the head that hosts the particle *ga'*, below or above TopP, reflecting the X head options in (31a) and (31b). The placement of the interrogative particle will serve as a useful diagnostic for the height of postverbal nominals in section 4 below.

3.6 Clauses without final subjects

There are two situations in which a clause will lack a clause-final subject: if the subject is a second-position clitic pronoun or if it is $\bar{A}$ -extracted. I propose that in both of these situations, the clause-final topic position (Spec,TopP) is unoccupied throughout the derivation. I discuss each type of structure here in turn.

Clitic pronouns I take the view that clitic pronouns reflect head-movement of the pronoun to T, following Erlewine & Levin's (2021) general proposal for clitic pronouns in Philippine-type languages. I assume that clitic pronouns are built with a reduced structure: specifically, as D heads without NP restrictors (Postal 1966, Elbourne 2001, 2005), with a K layer on top. A probe on T probes for all accessible nominals (at the ν P phase edge) and optionally head-moves their outermost head (cf. long

²⁴ Both derivations sketched in (31) are simplified as compared to what Holmer (2005) presents. Holmer also considers the ordering of multiple clause-final particles when they cooccur, and therefore suggests that higher layers of the functional sequence undergo roll-up movement, following TP fronting. I simplify the presentation here for expository purposes, as I will only make reference to evidence involving a single particle (X) at a time.

²⁵ See also Kao 2010, Yu 2015, and C. Lin 2018 for discussion of similar particles in C'uli' Atayal, which are generally clause-final but may also appear in some clause-medial positions. Unfortunately, the evidence presented there is insufficient for determining whether or not the analysis I pursue here for Squliq *ga'* (as reflecting the X positions in (31a) or (31b)) also extends to these other varieties.

head movement of D in e.g. Roberts 2010, Preminger 2019).²⁶ For the subject, this will be its D head, as subjects lack K following subject promotion. For a non-subject agent, this will be the K[vGEN] head with D head-moved to it.

As noted above, I assume that T hosts the highest auxiliary, or else the lexical verb itself in the absence of any auxiliaries. The clitic pronouns that head-move to T therefore appear as second-position enclitics following the word in T. See examples in (6) above.

Notice that Phase Impenetrability ensures that this process of cliticization can only ever apply to subjects and non-subject agents. As Erlewine & Levin (2021) note, this accords with a typological generalization: Philippine-type Austronesian languages have only at most two sets of second-position clitic pronouns, for subjects (nominative) and for non-subject agents (genitive). They argue that this is explained by, and in turn supports, the idea that the verbal phase has just one specifier in AV (the subject, often agentive) but two in NAV (the subject and the non-subject agent), as in my proposal in (22) above (see also Aldridge 2004, Rackowski & Richards 2005, Erlewine & C. Lim 2023).

$\bar{A}$ -extraction constructions Following Aldridge’s (2002, 2004, 2013) discussion of ex-situ focus and *wh*-constructions in Seediq (see also Paul 2001a, Potsdam 2009), I will treat all $\bar{A}$ -constructions as involving movement of a null, relative operator. Formally, I treat the null operator as an unpronounced, bare NP with [REL], which like all nominal arguments is base-generated as a KP: [_{KP} K Op_N] (cf. 19b). The subject undergoes K-Removal and the C head’s [REL] probe moves it to Spec,CP, where it will be licensed per the K Filter (20).

$\bar{A}$ -constructions are limited to the subject, as we saw in section 2.3. Recall that, based on the organization for the ν P phase that I adopt here, both the subject and non-subject agent will be at the ν P phase edge in Non-Actor Voice clauses (see (22a) and (24)), and therefore Phase Impenetrability predicts the non-subject agent to be accessible to probing by C. However, the non-subject agent will be a KP, and so its movement to Spec,CP violates the K Filter as formulated in (20): a nominal should not both be a KP and in a position licensed by C. (See note 11 for discussion of Bittner & Hale’s (1996) own motivation for this point.)

We may also wonder about the possibility of the probe on T that derives clitic pronouns targeting the agent KP, head-moving its K head and hence making its contents accessible for movement to Spec,CP. Such derivations will be the focus of the following section, where we will see that they too cannot feed $\bar{A}$ -extraction of the non-subject agent.

Notice that I do not assume that subject $\bar{A}$ -movement proceeds through Spec,TopP, the position of postverbal non-pronominal subjects. When the subject is an $\bar{A}$ -operator or a clitic pronoun, it will instead

²⁶ I describe this head-movement operation as optional, as it will generally not apply to nominals containing NP material. (Doing so will lead to clitic doubling, which I take up in section 4.) For reduced pronouns not containing an NP, I assume that this head-movement must take place as there is no means of realizing the pronoun without incorporation into a host word.

move directly to C or T, respectively, leaving the topic position unoccupied. This possibility of leaving Spec,TopP open will play a crucial role in my discussion below.

4 Non-subjects with nominative marking

On my proposal for case and voice in Atayalic, neither nominative case nor the high, sentence-final position are directly linked to subjecthood. Subjects undergo K-Removal and subsequently move to a topic position, unless they are a clitic pronoun or relative operator. Syntactically, the topic becomes clause-final due to predicate-fronting around it. Semantically, the topic position requires a definite nominal which generally means the subject will include a D head, leading to its description as nominative: as a K-less DP (see (19a)).

My approach here opens up the possibility that other nominals might also be hosted in the topic position, appearing in nominative case and in sentence-final position. In this section, I present evidence of precisely this possibility. I first discuss nominative non-subject agents and their analysis in section 4.1, and then discuss some attested extensions and parameters of microvariation in section 4.2.

4.1 Nominative non-subject agents with genitive clitic doubling

I first present what I believe to be the most common form of nominative non-subjects: non-subject agents that are doubled by a genitive clitic pronoun, in NAV clauses without postverbal subjects. By way of example, consider the Squliq theme *wh*-question in (33) below, repeated from (2a). This example involves $\bar{A}$ -extraction of the theme, which is the subject as predicted by the verb's PV morphology and in accordance with the subject-only restriction on $\bar{A}$ -extraction that we have observed above. However, there is also a nominative-marked postverbal argument, *Yuraw*, which is interpreted as the agent and must be doubled by a genitive clitic pronoun.

- (33) **Nominative non-subject agent in theme *wh*-question:** [Squliq]
- Nanu (qu') [cyux *(=nya) niq-un ____ qu' Yuraw]? = (2a)
- what NOM AUX =GEN.3sg eat-PV NOM Yuraw
- 'What is Yuraw eating?'

Nominative non-subject agents are also possible where the subject is itself a clitic pronoun, as in (34), repeated from (2b). Notice that there are two nominative-coded expressions here (the first-singular clitic pronoun and *Tali*) but the sentence is unambiguously 'Tali saw me' and not 'I saw Tali.' In other words, the postverbal nominative full noun phrase must be interpreted as associated with the genitive pronoun, which reflects the predicted coding for a non-subject agent.

(34) **Nominative non-subject agent with subject clitic pronoun:** [Squliq]

Wal =saku *(=nya) kt-an qu' Tali. = (2b)
 AUX =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg see-LV NOM Tali
 'Tali saw me.'

Nominative non-subject agents have also been documented in Seediq by various scholars. Just as I have shown for Squliq above, such agents "must be resumed by a pronoun" (Aldridge 2004: 215), which is always a genitive clitic pronoun. I present one such example from Truku Seediq in (35), with its non-nominative agent baseline. Note that Truku lacks genitive and oblique prenominal articles, but I reproduce the source's glossing which indicates these values. I present additional Seediq examples in section 4.2 below.

(35) **Nominative non-subject agent in Seediq:** [Seediq; Tsukida 2009: 323]

- a. Se-pehapuy =ku qesurux Kumu.
 CV-cook =NOM.1sg fish(OBL) Kumu(GEN)
 b. Se-pehapuy =ku =na qesurux ka Kumu.
 CV-cook =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg fish(OBL) NOM Kumu
 'Kumu cooked (the) fish for me.'

In Squliq Atayal, nominative non-subject agents are not possible when the subject (as determined by the choice of voice marking) is itself a postverbal full noun phrase. See (36) below, where I present a PV baseline (36a) and then the attempted nominative-marking of the agent with clitic doubling in (36b). In section 4.2, I will show that this requirement for no postverbal subject is subject to variation.

(36) **Nominative non-subject agent cannot cooccur with non-pronominal subject:** [Squliq]

- a. Niq-un na' Yuraw qu' sehuy qani.
 eat-PV GEN Yuraw NOM taro PROX
 'Yuraw is eating this taro.'
 b. *Niq-un =nya {qu' Yuraw} (qu') sehuy qani {qu' Yuraw}.
 eat-PV =GEN.3sg NOM Yuraw NOM taro PROX

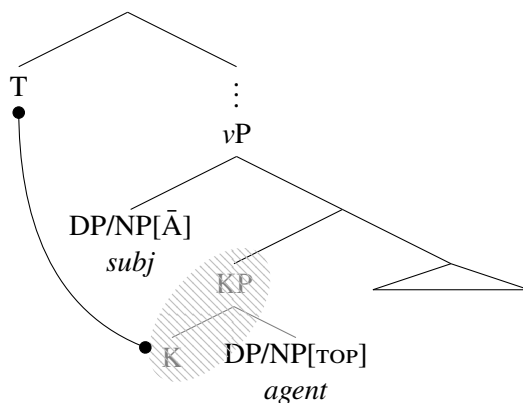
Analysis The examples above motivate the following analysis. The proposal for the derivation of clitic pronouns above (§3.6) may apply to a non-subject agent KP that is not a pronoun (i.e., with a NP restrictor), stranding a K-less nominal. Due to the K Filter, the resulting derivation will only converge if

the now K-less agent is moved to the CP domain. For Squliq, specifically in the case where the subject does not itself move to the topic position, Top may instead attract the now K-less non-subject agent and license it. This explains the limited distribution of nominative non-subject agents as only possible when the subject itself does not occupy the topic position, as well as its obligatory genitive clitic doubling.

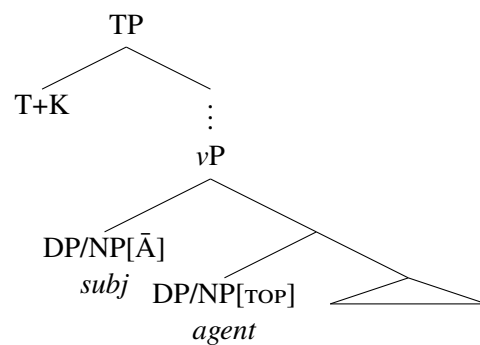
I now present this account in further detail, beginning with the process of pronominal clitic formation. Consider a NAV ν P phase structure as in (37), from (22) above, where the subject bears some $\bar{A}$ -feature and the agent additionally is a non-pronominal with a [TOP] feature. Recall that T probes for accessible nominals, which here will be the subject and non-subject agent, and then optionally head-moves each goal's highest head. I propose that in Squliq, when the head K undergoes long head-movement to T, the goal's K head is Removed; see (37a).²⁷ This leaves an additional K-less nominal at the phase edge; see (37b). Due to the K Filter, this now K-less non-subject nominal must move to the clause periphery to be licensed by C.

(37) **Genitive pronoun cliticization Removes the agent's K head:**

a. T attracts and Removes K head:



b. Result:



For Squliq, specifically in the case where the subject does not itself move to the topic position, Top will attract the now K-less non-subject agent as in (37). I consider the two types of configurations where this occurs in turn. In examples where the subject ultimately undergoes $\bar{A}$ -extraction (33), the subject will be a relative operator Op_N bearing [REL], and so [TOP] probing by the Topic head will skip it and attract the agent. In examples where the subject is a clitic pronoun (34–35), the subject itself will have undergone head-movement to T just as in (37), and so again the Topic head will skip it and attract the agent. TP predicate-fronting takes place, resulting in the agent in clause-final position. As familiar topics are definite, the agent will generally include a D head, resulting in its appearance with nominative marking.

²⁷ Note that this instance of Remove satisfies the Strict Cycle Condition as per Müller 2017: 4, as it is a byproduct of head-movement of K to T. See also Stepanov 2012 for an earlier proposal that head-movement leads to removal of the head's projection and reattachment of its dependents. Whether head-movement of K obligatorily triggers this K-Removal on the goal KP is a point of variation, as I discuss in section 4.2 below.

Notice that this possibility of Top probing for and attracting the non-subject agent in these circumstances, where the subject does not move to Spec,TopP, will also apply if the non-subject agent had *not* undergone clitic doubling first. However, in that situation, the non-subject agent would still be a KP and its position in Spec,TopP will violate the K Filter (20). This explains the obligatoriness of clitic doubling in these configurations.

Predictions A prediction of my analysis is that nominative-marked non-subjects should be in the high, sentence-final position normally associated with non-pronominal subjects. Recall that the Squliq interrogative particle *ga'* can precede clause-final subjects, but normally cannot precede non-subject arguments; see (38a). However, *ga'* can precede nominative non-subject agents; see (38b). As I argued in section 3.5 above, this suggests that the nominative agent in (38b) is structurally high, outside of the domain of predicate fronting (TP), unlike the genitive agent in (38a).

(38) **Interrogative *ga'* shows nominative non-subject agent is high:** [Squliq]

- a. Kt-an =simu {**ga'*} na' Tali {*ga'*}?
 see-LV =NOM.2pl GEN Tali Q
- b. Kt-an =simu =nya {*ga'*} qu' Tali {*ga'*}?
 see-LV =NOM.2pl =GEN.3sg Q NOM Tali
 'Did Tali see you?'

We also expect nominative-marked non-subjects to be associated with familiar topic status. Recall that one reflex of this status is an inability to host an interrogative *wh*-phrase. (See example (17) in section 2.3 above, where this was presented as a subject property.) Tsukida (2009) notes that this restriction also extends to nominative non-subject agents in Truku Seediq:

(39) **Nominative non-subject cannot be a *wh*-word:** [Seediq; Tsukida 2009: 325]

- *Se-pehapuy =ku =na qexurux ka 'ima?
 CV-cook =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg fish(OBL) NOM who
 Intended: 'Who cooked (the) fish for me?'

$\bar{A}$ -extraction We should also revisit the relationship between nominative-marking and $\bar{A}$ -extraction. Previously, we had seen that $\bar{A}$ -extraction is limited to subjects, but subjecthood also appeared to be one-to-one with nominative case. Given the availability of nominative-marked non-subject agents, under particular conditions, it is important to see whether such agents can also be $\bar{A}$ -extracted. The answer is negative. Consider the pair of examples in (40). (40a) reproduces example (34) from above as a baseline,

where *Tali* is a nominative non-subject agent. Example (40b) illustrates the prediction of $\bar{A}$ -extraction of a non-subject agent from an otherwise equivalent clause. The ungrammaticality of (40b) shows that the availability of $\bar{A}$ -extraction truly tracks subjecthood, rather than nominative-marking.

(40) **Non-subject agent doubled by genitive clitic cannot be $\bar{A}$ -extracted:** [Squliq]

a. Wal =saku =nya kt-an qu' Tali. =(34)

AUX =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg see-LV NOM Tali

'Tali saw me.'

b. *Ima (qu') [wal =saku =nya kt-an ____]?

who NOM AUX =NOM.1sg =GEN.3sg see-LV

Intended: 'Who saw me?'

Tsukida (2009: 324) also notes that, in Truku Seediq, the possibility of nominative-marking non-subject agents doubled by a genitive clitic cannot feed relativization, in line with the Squliq data point in (40).

Based on my analysis for examples such as (34/40a) above, a derivation that would potentially underlie (40b) would be one where the agent is base-generated as a null operator with K ([K Op_N]), T clitic-doubles the agent (as well as the subject pronoun) by head-moving and Removing its K head, and then the null operator is moved to Spec,CP. As the null operator bears [REL], not [TOP], it would not pass through the topic position.

The ungrammaticality of the resulting configuration is predicted due to weak crossover (Postal 1971). See for example the statement of the crossover condition in (41). The $\bar{A}$ -moved null operator in Spec,CP binds both the genitive clitic pronoun on T and the trace position at the ν P phase edge, movement of the operator from the trace position to Spec,CP having "crossed over" the pronoun.

(41) **Crossover condition:** (Lasnik & Stowell 1991: 691)

"In a configuration where a pronoun P and a trace T are both $\bar{A}$ -bound by a category C, T must c-command P."

See also Baker & Kramer 2018 for discussion and motivation of the idea that doubled clitics behave as pronouns for the purposes of weak crossover, as well as supporting evidence for this view from another Philippine-type language, Kapampangan, in Erlewine & Levin 2021: 418–419. Note too that the grammatical examples of nominative non-subject agents with genitive clitic doubling, as in (34/40a) above also appear to violate the crossover condition in (41); however, the movement of topics is known to not trigger weak crossover violations (Lasnik & Stowell 1991), explaining the ability of genitive clitic doubling to feed nominative non-subject agents being topics but not relative operators.

4.2 Extensions and parameters of microvariation

I consider the particular variety of nominative-marked non-subject described above in section 4.1 — that is, nominative-marked non-subject agents with genitive clitic doubling, in the absence of a postverbal subject — to be a previously underappreciated but common possibility across Atayalic.²⁸ In contrast, in this section, I will discuss related constructions which can be described as minor variants thereof. My analysis above can easily be extended to these other possibilities and helps us make sense of the attested points of variation, which in turn further motivates the analytic approach above.

Multiple nominative noun phrases The first extension I describe is the possibility, attested in some Seediq varieties, for nominative non-subject agents to cooccur with a postverbal non-pronominal subject. Aldridge (2004) presents the following synonymous examples from Tgdaya Seediq. In example (42b), there are two postverbal nominative-marked phrases: the theme ‘friend’ (the subject of the PV clause) followed by the non-subject agent *Pawan*.

(42) **Nominative non-subject agent together with nominative subject:**

[Seediq; Aldridge 2004: 44–45]

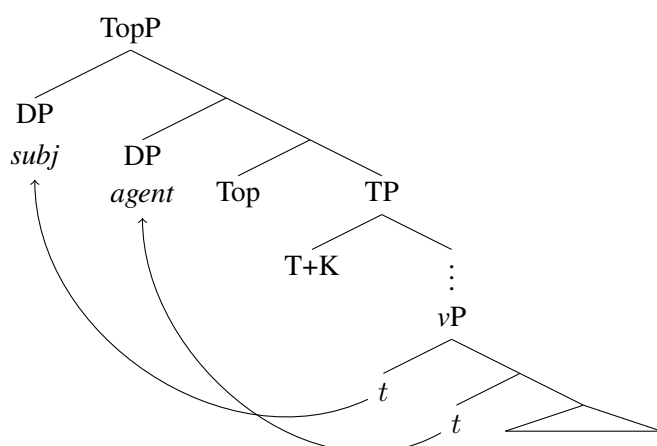
- a. Wada bube-un na Pawan ka dangi=na.
 AUX hit-PV GEN Pawan NOM friend=GEN.3sg
- b. Wada =na bube-un ka dangi=na ka Pawan-ni.
 AUX =GEN.3sg hit-PV NOM friend=GEN.3sg NOM Pawan-DEF
 ‘Pawan hit his friend.’

Additional Tgdaya Seediq examples of this form in (42b) are also reported by Holmer (1996: 128) and Su (1997: 249), as well as in Aldridge 2004: 77, 215. For Truku Seediq, Tsukida (2009: 324) claims that such simultaneous multiple nominative structures are possible for some but not all of her speakers.

My analysis for the derivation of nominative non-subject agents in Squliq, in (37) above, can be easily adapted to these facts here. I propose that the Seediq speakers that allow for multiple postverbal nominatives of the form in (42b) have Top heads that can attract and host multiple accessible DP topic specifiers. See (43). On this proposal, the observed variation between my Squliq speakers and the various Seediq speakers who allow multiple nominative phrases then echoes the well-studied difference between languages with single *wh*-movement and multiple *wh*-movement in multiple *wh* questions (see e.g. Richards 1997).

²⁸ Although this construction has only been documented in the Squliq variety from my own fieldwork and in a range of Seediq varieties, I am not aware of any work on any Atayalic variety which explicitly shows that the construction in section 4.1 is not possible; it is simply the case that constructions of this form have generally not been investigated. Therefore, although I cannot claim with certainty that such constructions are available in all Atayalic varieties, the available evidence is compatible with this possibility.

(43) **Hosting two nominatives in Spec,TopP:**



In particular, when multiple DPs are moved, I propose that they do so in an order-preserving fashion (perhaps via Richards’ “tucking-in”), as illustrated in (43). This proposal accurately derives the fact, noted by Aldridge (2004: 44) and Tsukida (2009: 324), that subjects must precede non-subject agents in these constructions with multiple postverbal nominatives. For instance, example (42b) unambiguously expresses that ‘Pawan hit his friend,’ not the other way around.

Seediq gerunds A second extension of the behavior above is the availability of nominative non-subject agents in Seediq gerunds, documented by Oiwa-Bungard (2017). Gerunds in Seediq at first glance resemble verbal clauses, but have a number of important differences. First, there is no voice alternation in gerunds and, relatedly, there is generally no nominative argument in them. Instead, transitive agents and themes appear in genitive and oblique case, respectively (*ibid.*: 55ff). See example (44a).²⁹ Against this background, Oiwa-Bungard shows that the agent inside a gerund can optionally be nominative-marked, obligatorily doubled by a genitive clitic pronoun; see (44b).

(44) **Nominative non-subject agent in gerund:** [Seediq; Oiwa-Bungard 2017: 58]

- a. Tru jiyax [q<n>rap-an knan pais].
 three day capture<PFV>-GER.NFUT OBL.1sg enemy(GEN)
- b. Tru jiyax [q<n>rap-an *(=dha) knan ka pais].
 three day capture<PFV>-GER.NFUT =GEN.3pl OBL.1sg NOM enemy
 ‘It has been three days since the enemies caught me.’
 (literally ‘[The enemies’ having caught me] was three days ago.’)

²⁹ Some gerundive morphology appears to be cognate to verbal voice morphology, but they have different functions. For instance, the *-an* suffix in (44) is equal in form to the LV suffix but here indicates non-future tense (*ibid.*: 44ff).

My proposal above can be easily extended to address these behaviors of Seediq gerunds. First, the case-marking of arguments inside gerunds is exactly what we predict if an environment simply does not choose any argument for subject promotion: see section 3.1 and footnote 12 there. Second, the availability of a nominative non-subject agent as in (44b) supports my view that nominative-marking is *not* specifically tied to subjecthood; instead, it reflects a structural reduction that may be the result of subject promotion (not operative in gerunds) or else of genitive clitic doubling which also triggers K-Removal. Assuming the existence of a relevant C head or similar at the edge of gerunds which can host and license K-less DP, we explain the availability of the nominative agents with genitive clitic doubling as in (44b).

Clitic doubling without K-Removal One ingredient of my analysis for nominative non-subject agents with genitive clitic doubling above was that, in Squliq, head-movement of a nominal's outermost functional head would result in its Removal. (See (37) above.) This explains the ungrammaticality of a non-subject agent being clitic-doubled by a genitive pronoun and also staying in-situ as a genitive-marked noun phrase, as in (45) below.³⁰

(45) **Ungrammatical in-situ clitic-doubling in Squliq:** [Squliq; A. Liu 2004: 22]

*Kit-an =**nya'** (na') Sayun qu' ngarux qasa.

see-LV =GEN.3sg GEN Sayun NOM bear DIST

Intended: 'Sayun saw that bear.'

The obligatoriness of Removal together with cliticization is a point of (micro)variation. H. Chang (1997) reports that for his Tgdaya Seediq speakers, non-subject agents can optionally be clitic-doubled while retaining their original genitive marking; see (46).³¹ I analyze this as reflecting an option for these Seediq speakers (unavailable in Squliq, as well as for other Seediq speakers: see note 31) to head-move the K head to T, realizing a genitive clitic pronoun, and keeping the agent KP's K head intact.

(46) **Genitive clitic-doubling for some Tgdaya speakers:** [Seediq; H. Chang 1997: 77, 82]

Wada =**na** puq-un **na** Pawan ka ido.

AUX =GEN.3sg eat-PV GEN Pawan NOM rice

'Pawan ate the rice.'

³⁰ The ungrammaticality of the variant of (45) with no article on Sayun also serves to show that an agent with its K head Removed cannot stay in-situ; it must move to the CP domain for licensing, as per the K Filter (20).

³¹ However, Aldridge (2004, 2010) explicitly reports that examples of the form in (46) are *not* grammatical for her Tgdaya speakers. See Aldridge 2010: 173 ex. 11b, as well as discussion in Aldridge 2004: 215.

Seediq also allows for optional nominative clitic-doubling as in (47), analyzed as head-movement of D to T without Removal of the original D head. This is attested in both H. Chang’s (1997) and Aldridge’s (2004) work on Tgdaya Seediq.

(47) **Nominative clitic-doubling in Tgdaya:** [Seediq; Aldridge 2004: 214]

M-usa =**ku** mu-huma kyuuri=na **ka** yaku.
 AV-go =NOM.1sg AV-plant cucumber=GEN.3sg NOM 1sg
 ‘I went to plant his cucumbers.’

Broader cross-linguistic variation across Philippine-type languages also reinforces the idea that there is variation (by language or by probe) in whether pronominal cliticization necessarily Removes the goal noun phrase’s outermost head or not. There are cases of clitic-doubling which do not affect the case marking of their associates (e.g. in Kapampangan or with Puyuma genitive agents; see Erlewine & Levin 2021 and citations there) and cases where optional clitic-doubling results in case-less noun phrase associates (e.g. in Pangasinan; see Erlewine & J. Lim 2023).

Nominative non-subject themes Next, I discuss the possibility of non-subject themes. My own primary Squliq speakers could also nominative-mark non-subject themes in AV clauses, again as long as the subject itself is not a postverbal noun phrase (cf. (7a)). Consider the agent *wh*-question and subject clitic structures with nominative-marked non-subject themes in (48) below. Unlike with nominative non-subject agents, there is no additional pronoun doubling these nominative non-subject themes.

(48) **Nominative non-subject themes:** [Squliq]

- a. Ima (qu’) [wal m-aniq ____ **qu’** sehuy qasa]?
 who NOM AUX AV-eat NOM taro DIST
 ‘Who ate that taro?’
- b. Cyux =sami m-ita **qu’** Tali.
 AUX =NOM.1plE AV-see NOM Tali
 ‘We (exclusive) see Tali.’

I tentatively propose that these structures reflect the possibility of base-generating a DP in Spec,TopP to bind an argument position below, just when there is no nominal that moves to Spec,TopP. This approach is compatible with the proposal for the verbal phase presented above (with cross-linguistic support from the attested inventory of clitic pronouns; see Erlewine & Levin 2021), whereby a non-subject theme may

never move out.³²

This same possibility of non-subject themes without clitic-doubling is also attested in Tgdaya Seediq, as in (49a) below. Just as in Squliq, the non-subject theme cannot be nominative-marked if the subject itself is a postverbal full noun phrase: see (49b). Aldridge (2004: 45) also reports the ungrammaticality of an example of this form.³³

(49) **Nominative non-subject themes in Tgdaya:** [Seediq; Holmer 1996: 67–68, 129]

- a. Q<m><n>ita =ku **ka** boyak.
<AV><PFV>see =NOM.1SG NOM boar
'I saw the boar (but I didn't see the hunters).'

- b. *Q<m><n>ita **ka** boyak (**ka**) Pawan.
<AV><PFV>see NOM boar NOM Pawan
Intended: 'Pawan saw a boar.' / 'The boar saw Pawan.'

This inability to cooccur with a postverbal subject in (49b) is an important detail that lends support to my proposal for nominative non-subject themes. Recall that both Holmer (1996) and Aldridge (2004) report that Tgdaya Seediq allows nominative non-subject *agents*, with genitive clitic-doubling, to cooccur with a postverbal non-pronominal subject; see (42) above. The fact that both report that that examples of the form in (49) are ungrammatical suggests that the nature of nominative non-subject themes clearly differs from that of nominative non-subject agents. My different proposals above for nominative non-subject agents vs themes in Seediq can explain this difference.

My analysis predicts that nominative non-subject themes should also be associated with topic status and be in a structurally high position, like nominative subjects and nominative non-subject agents, as seen above. In line with the first prediction, I observed that my Squliq speakers strongly preferred nominative-marked non-subject themes to have postnominal demonstratives, as in (50) below.³⁴ In line with the second prediction, the interrogative marker *ga'* cannot precede non-subject themes unless they are nominative-marked; see (51) below.

³² My proposal here makes the prediction that nominative non-subject agents may exhibit connectivity or reconstruction effects that nominative non-subject themes do not. Unfortunately I do not have data that speaks to this prediction, and leave this prediction to be tested in future work.

³³ Holmer describes (49b) with the intended interpretation 'Pawan saw a boar,' with "NOM *theme* NOM *subj*" word order, but as the string is generally reported to be ungrammatical, it must also be ungrammatical as 'The/A boar saw Pawan' with "NOM *subj* NOM *theme*" word order. Aldridge (2004) corroborates the ungrammaticality of the nominative non-subject theme cooccurring with a subject in "NOM *subj* NOM *theme*" word order in Tgdaya; see p. 45 ex. 94.

³⁴ The data in my Squliq field notes are compatible with non-subject agents also reflecting this constraint: that is, nominative-marked non-subject agents overwhelmingly have postnominal demonstratives, or else are proper names. Unfortunately my notes do not include a clear minimal pair akin to what I show with a non-subject theme in (50). See also the definite enclitic on the non-subject agent in Aldridge's Tgdaya Seediq example (42b) above.

(50) **Nominative-marking strongly prefers demonstrative:** [Squliq]

Nyux =saku m-aniq **qu'** yutak ??(qani).
 AUX.PROG =NOM.1sg AV-eat NOM orange PROX
 'I'm eating {this orange / *oranges}.'

(51) **Interrogative *ga'* shows nominative non-subject theme is high:** [Squliq]

- a. Nyux =su m-aniq {***ga'**} yutak {**ga'**}?
 AUX =NOM.2sg AV-eat orange Q
 'Are you eating oranges?'
- b. Nyux =su m-aniq {**ga'**} **qu'** yutak qani {**ga'**}?
 AUX =NOM.2sg AV-eat Q NOM orange PROX
 'Are you eating this orange?'

Finally, echoing the discussion of non-subject agent $\bar{A}$ -extraction in (40) above, I note that the availability of nominative-marking on non-subject themes does not feed $\bar{A}$ -extraction. See example (52), which reflects an attempt at $\bar{A}$ -extracting the non-subject theme from an example parallel to (48b) above.

(52) **No $\bar{A}$ -extraction of non-subject theme:** [Squliq]

*Nanu (qu') [cyux =su m-aniq ____]?
 what NOM AUX =NOM.2sg AV-eat
 Intended: 'What are you eating?'

The ungrammaticality of this configuration reflects an inability to base-generate a null operator in Spec,TopP and move it to Spec,CP. This could be understood in multiple ways: for example as due to the inability of a relative operator to satisfy the topic semantics necessary for occupying the topic position in the first place, or that the topic position is subject to "criterial freezing" in the sense of Rizzi 2006, 2014.

Nominative non-subject time adjuncts The final extension that I discuss is the availability of nominative-marked time adjuncts. Tsukida (2005: 299–300, 2009: 320ff) and Oiwa-Bungard (2017: 20, 58–59) document this possibility in Truku Seediq, as long as the subject is not itself a postverbal phrase. See the examples in (53), including the ungrammatical example in (53c) provided by Tsukida. Like the case of nominative non-subject themes which also cannot cooccur with a postverbal subject in Seediq, I propose that these time adjunct nominals can be base-generated in Spec,TopP, just when Spec,TopP is otherwise unoccupied.

(53) **Nominative time adjuncts in Truku:**

[Seediq; (a): Oiwa-Bungard 2017: 20; (b,c): Tsukida 2005: 299–300]

- a. M-iing =ku Kuras **ka** sayang.
AV-search =NOM.1SG Kuras(OBL) NOM now
'I am looking for Kuras right now.'
- b. Masaw 'u, m-bahu lukus (**ka**) ke'man sayang.
Masaw TOP AV.FUT-wash clothes(OBL) NOM night now
'As for Masaw, he will wash clothes tonight.'
- c. *M-bahu lukus {**ka** ke'man sayang} **ka** Masaw {**ka** ke'man sayang}.
AV.FUT-wash clothes(OBL) NOM night now NOM Masaw

Tsukida furthermore notes that, like subjects (17) and nominative non-subject agents (39), a nominative-marked time expression cannot be a *wh*-word. See (54), where the subject of 'arrive' is pro-dropped in both cases. This behavior too accords with my analysis where exceptional nominative-marking is made possible by the Spec,TopP position, which is incompatible with interrogative expressions.

(54) **Nominative-marked time cannot be interrogative:**

[Seediq; Tsukida 2009: 321]

- a. Mpe-dehuq karingku **ka** kusun.
AV.FUT-arrive Hualien(OBL) NOM tomorrow
'[He/she] will arrive at Hualien tomorrow.'
- b. *Mpe-dehuq karingku **ka** kenuwan?
AV.FUT-arrive Hualien(OBL) NOM when
Intended: 'When will [he/she] arrive at Hualien?'

5 Conclusion

The interrelated behaviors of case and voice morphology and their relationship to $\bar{A}$ -processes in so-called Philippine-type Austronesian languages have received substantial attention in both typological and theoretical literature. Much of this work has aimed at understanding the notion of "subjecthood" (or, perhaps more neutrally, "pivohood") and its associated behaviors, within the grammatical systems of these languages as well as in relation to historically better-studied systems of case, voice, and movement. As is common in Philippine-type languages (see e.g. Erlewine, Levin & Van Urk 2017: 376), each clause has one argument (here, the "subject") with distinct argument coding (traditionally described as

“nominative”) commonly associated with topichood, there are multiple “voices,” including options for taking certain oblique arguments as the subject, and $\bar{A}$ -extraction is limited to the subject argument. Previous accounts have debated whether the choice of subject reflects an A- or $\bar{A}$ -process, and relatedly whether “nominative” coding reflects a different case value or else an $\bar{A}$ -annotation such as a topic-marking.

Against this backdrop, this paper offers a new perspective on the nature of subjecthood and nominative marking in these languages, as well as their relationship to topichood. I propose a novel approach to the Philippine-type voice alternation, whereby promotion to subject involves *Removal* (Müller 2017, 2018 et seq) of the subject’s K head. What has been described as nominative-marking then reflects the D head of a K-less DP. Following Bittner & Hale’s (1996) K Filter proposal for nominal licensing, K-less nominals must be a part of the CP domain, which a CP-level topic position makes possible. In turn, the semantics of the topic position necessitate that the subject be definite and hence appear with a definite determiner (D). On this account, the frequent correlations between subjecthood, topichood, and nominative-marking are indirect, allowing for certain limited mismatches. I showed that the proposal allows us to naturally account for a range of mismatches and the attested microvariation therein.

The initial motivation for this approach comes from clear morphosyntactic contrasts in the case-marking inventory of Atayalic languages. Nominative-marked nominals can be properly contained within non-nominative case-marked nominals, reflecting a structural reduction associated with nominative and hence with subjecthood. I also showed that this generalization extends to a wide range of other Philippine-type Austronesian languages (§3.3). These morphological parallels suggest that the novel proposal for voice alternations here may be productively extended to account for the behaviors of other so-called Philippine-type languages.

By way of conclusion, I note one additional consequence of my novel proposal for the voice alternation in Atayalic. Within the typology of movement types, Van Urk (2015) has proposed that the result of joint probing for an A-feature and an $\bar{A}$ -feature leads to so-called “composite A/ $\bar{A}$ -movement,” which exhibits a mix of A- and $\bar{A}$ -movement properties. (See Postal 1971 and Chomsky 1981 on the classic distinction, as well as Lohninger 2024 for a recent overview which addresses the behavior of “composite” movements.) Recall that probes on the head v identify a single goal that satisfies (some form of) $\bar{A}$ -probe (§3.4) and also a K-Removal feature ($[-K^0-]$; §3.2). As a result, we may expect the movement of Atayalic subjects to exhibit a mix of A- and $\bar{A}$ -movement properties. I observe that this is a positive result.

V. Chen (2017, 2025) suggests that subject promotion in Seediq (as well as various other Philippine-type voice system languages) exhibits $\bar{A}$ -properties, for instance demonstrating that subjects can reconstruct for variable binding; see (55). However, promotion to subject also has the possibility of *feeding*

variable binding in Seediq (see (56)) as well as obviating Condition C (that is, does not obligatorily reconstruct for Condition C) in Sqliq (see (57)).³⁵ Finally, subject control verbs target the embedded subject as seen in the Matu’uwal examples in (58), rather than uniformly targeting the agent as in some other Philippine-type languages (see e.g. discussion in Lohninger & Katochoritis 2024).

(55) **Subject can reconstruct for variable binding:** [Seediq; V. Chen 2025: 184]

Gulu-un liyun [na kn-kingal bubu]_i [ka laqi=daha].
 love-PV very GEN RED-one mother NOM child=GEN.3pl
 ‘[Every mother]_i loves [her_i child].’

(56) **Subject promotion feeds variable binding:** [Seediq; Wu 2025: 8]

- a. *Wada m-emux [kn-kingal laqi]_i [ka bubu=daha_i].
 AUX AV-hug RED-one child(OBL) NOM mother=GEN.3pl
 ‘[Their_i mother] hugged [every child]_i.’
- b. Wada mex-un [na bubu=daha_i] [ka kn-kingal laqi]_i.
 AUX hug-PV GEN mother=GEN.3pl NOM RED-one child(OBL)
 ‘[Their_i mother] hugged [every child]_i.’

(57) **Subject promotion obviates Condition C:** [Sqliq; T. Chen 2014: 9]

- a. M-asuq m-anig [sehuy na Yumin_j] qu hiya_{i/*j}.
 AV-finish AV-eat taro(OBL) GEN Yumin NOM 3sg
 ‘He/she_{i/*j} finished eating [Yumin_j’s taros].’
- b. Suq-un =nya_{i/j} m-anig [qu sehuy na Yumin_j].
 finish-PV =GEN.3sg AV-eat NOM taro(OBL) GEN Yumin
 ‘He/she_{i/j} finished eating [Yumin_j’s taros].’

(58) **Subject promotion feeds obligatory control:** [C’uli’; D. Liu 2011: 184]

- a. S<um>iua’ ku’ nabakis [’i’ ma-lahang cku’ ’ulaqi’ —].
 <AV>like NOM old.man LNK AV-take.care.of OBL.D child PRO_{ag}(NOM)
 ‘The old man likes to take care of this child.’

³⁵ The latter two properties accord with the behavior of movement to the V2 prefield in Dinka (Nilotic), which Van Urk (2015) identifies as a canonical case of “composite A/ $\bar{A}$ -movement.” See exx. 42, 43a on page 114 for the obviation of Condition C violations and exx. 34b, 35b on page 110 for movement feeding variable binding, parallel to the examples in (56–57). Van Urk does not discuss configurations parallel to (55).

V. Chen (2017) presents structurally parallel evidence to (56b) from Tgdaya Seediq on page 188, exx. 20a,b and page 123 ex. 56c. She also presents another example that is structurally similar but where subject promotion apparently does *not* feed variable binding (p. 186 ex. 13c). It is unclear why these examples do not pattern together.

- b. S<um>iua' ku' nabakis ['i' klahang-an nku' 'ulaqi' —].
 <AV>like NOM old.man LNK take.care.of-LV GEN.D child PRO_{th}(NOM)
 'The old man likes to be taken care of by this child.'

Further work is necessary to better document and understand the movement properties associated with subject promotion in Atayalic languages, as well as the broader range of Philippine-type languages, and the potential variation therein. However, I conclude here by noting that the novel derivational syntax of voice that I propose here — combined with work on the distribution of A- vs $\bar{A}$ - properties as in Van Urk 2015 — appears to make accurate predictions regarding the “mixed” interpretational and binding-related properties associated with subjecthood in Atayalic languages, which have gone unexplained in previous accounts.

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